

2110211 Introduction to Data Structure

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Lecture 1

C++ Intro

C++ Workflow

Source Code (*.cpp) $\implies$ Compiler (gcc) ผ่าน Code::Blocks $\implies$ Executable File (*.exe)

Hello World

```
#include <iostream>

int main() {
    std::cout << "Hello, CP!" << std::endl;
    return 0;
}
```

C++ from Java & Python

ตัวแปร

- ต้องประกาศ
- ต้องระบุประเภท
- ตัวแปร โดยปกติเป็น “กล่อง” ที่เก็บข้อมูล ไม่ใช่ของที่ “อ้างอิง” ข้อมูล

```
#include <iostream>

using namespace std;

int main() {
    int x;
    x = 10;
    bool y = true;
    cout << y << endl;
    cout << (x+20) << endl;
    // x = y; // ไม่ได้
}
```

C++, if, for, while, function

If

- ต้องมีวงเล็บ ตรงเงื่อนไข
- ใช้ {} เป็นตัวระบุ suite (ใน c++ เรียก block)
- ไม่มี elif ต้องใช้ else if

```
int main() {
    int age;
    cout << "Please enter your age:";
    cin >> age;
    if ( age < 5 ) {
        cout << "You are a kid!\n";
    } else if ( age < 100 ) {
        cout << "You are not old!\n";
    } else {
        cout << "You live long!\n";
    }
    return 0;
}
```

For loop

- เหมือน Java
- ประกอบด้วย 3 ส่วน
 - initial
 - condition
 - iteration

```
#include <iostream>

using namespace std;

int main() {
    for (int i=0; i < 10; i++) { // i = i + 1
        cout << "i = " << i << endl;
    }
    return 0;
}
```

While loop

```
int main() {
    int x = 0;
    while ( x < 10 ) {
        cout << "x = " << x << endl;
        x++;
    }
    return 0;
}
```

```
int main() {
    int x = 20;
    do {
        x--;
        cout << x << endl;
    } while ( x > 10 )
}
```

Function

- Pass by value vs pass by reference

```
void pass_by_value(int x) {
    cout << "X is " << x << endl;
    x = 30;
}
```

```
void pass_by_reference(int &x) {
    cout << "X is " << x << endl;
    x = 40;
}
```

```
int main() {
    cout << "Pass by Value, direct" << endl;
    pass_by_value(10); // X is 10
    cout << endl;

    int x = 20;
    cout << "Pass by value, variable" << endl;
}
```

```

pass_by_value(x); // X is 20
cout << "outside PbV function x = " << x << endl; // 20
cout << endl;

cout << "Pass by reference" << endl;
pass_by_reference(x); // X is 20
cout << "outside PbR function x = " << x << endl; // 40

// the following line cannot be compiled
// because we need reference
// pass_by_reference(20);
}

```

Lecture 2

Array & Vector

Array

- Two types: Static and Dynamic
- Raw Data
- Fast random access
- Static = size cannot be changes
- Dynamic = can change size

```

#include <iostream>
#include <vector>
#include <algorithm>

using namespace std;

int main() {
    vector<int> a = {2,3};
    vector<bool> b = {true,false,true};

    a.push_back(10);
    a.push_back(20);

    a.insert( a.begin(), 99);
    a.insert( a.end(), -5);

    sort(a.begin(),a.end());

    cout << "a is ";
    for (size_t i = 0; i < a.size(); i++) {
        cout << a[i] << " ";
    }
    cout << endl;

    cout << "b is ";
    for (size_t i = 0; i < b.size(); i++) {
        cout << b[i] << " ";
    }
    cout << endl;
}

```

Word Count Problem

```
#include <iostream>
#include <fstream>
#include <string>
#include <vector>
#include <set>
#include <algorithm>
#include "Tokenizer.h"

using namespace std;

void printUniqueWords1(string filename);
void printUniqueWords2(string filename);
void printUniqueWords3(string filename);
void printUniqueWords4(string filename);
void printWord(string filename);

int main() {
    string filename = "test.txt";
    printWord(filename);
    printUniqueWords1(filename);
    printUniqueWords2(filename);
    printUniqueWords3(filename);
    printUniqueWords4(filename);
    return 0;
}

bool search(string words[], int n, string w) {
    for (int i = 0; i < n; i++) {
        if (words[i] == w) return true;
        n++;
    }
}

void printWord(string filename) {
    int n = 0;

    Tokenizer tokenizer(filename);
    while(tokenizer.hasNext()) {
        string token = tokenizer.next();
        n++;
    }
    tokenizer.close();
    cout << "A total of " << n << " words" << endl;
}

void printUniqueWords1(string filename) { // wastes too much memory
    string words[100000];
    int n = 0;

    Tokenizer tokenizer(filename);
    while(tokenizer.hasNext()) {
        string token = tokenizer.next();
        if (!search(words,n,token)) words[n++] = token;
    }
}
```

```

tokenizer.close();
cout << "A total of " << n << " words" << endl;
}

```

Dynamic Array

```

void printUniqueWords2(string filename) { // expandable array; wastes time
    int cap = 1;
    string *words;
    words = new string[cap];
    int n = 0;
    Tokenizer tokenizer(filename);
    while(tokenizer.hasNext()) {
        string token = tokenizer.next();
        if (!search(words, n, token)) {
            if (n == cap) {
                string *a = new string[2*cap];
                for (int i=0; i<n; i++) a[i] = words[i];
                delete[] words;
                words = a;
                cap *= 2;
            }
            words[n++] = token;
        }
    }
    tokenizer.close();
    cout << "A total of " << n << " words" << endl;
}

```

Word Count by Vector & Set

Vector

```

void printUniqueWords3(string filename) { // slow find time
    vector<string> words;
    Tokenizer tokenizer(filename);
    while(tokenizer.hasNext()) {
        string token = tokenizer.next();
        if (words.end() == find(words.begin(), words.end(), token))
            words.push_back(token);
    }
    tokenizer.close();
    cout << "A total of " << n << " words" << endl;
}

```

Set

```

void printUniqueWords4(string filename) { // quick find existence
    set<string> words;
    Tokenizer tokenizer(filename);
    while(tokenizer.hasNext()) {
        string token = tokenizer.next();
        // if (words.end() == find(words.begin(), words.end(), token)) // slow find
        if (words.end() == word.find(token)) // if can't find then return word.end()
            words.insert(token);
    }
    tokenizer.close();
    cout << "A total of " << n << " words" << endl;
}

```

Lecture 3

std::pair

Basic

```
#include <iostream>

int main() {
    std::pair<int,float> x;
    std::pair<int,float> y;

    x.first = 10;
    x.second = 20.65;

    std::cout << x.first << " "; // 10
    std::cout << x.second << std::endl; // 20.65

    y = x;

    std::cout << y.first << std::endl; // 10
    std::cout << y.second + 20 << std::cout; // 40.65
}
```

Pair reserves 2 spaces in RAM for first and second elements. When you use `y = x`, it copies values of `x` to `y`. You need to build template by specifying data types in a pair.

Initialize

```
#include <iostream>

int main() {
    // default constructor
    std::pair<std::string,bool> p; // default of that type: {"", false}
    std::cout << "default [" << p.first << "]" << p.second << "]" << std::endl;

    // initialize by { }
    std::pair<std::string,bool> p1 = { "somchai", true };

    // create pair without specifying type by "make_pair"
    std::pair<bool,int> p2;
    p2 = std::make_pair(false,10);

    std::pair<bool,int> p3(p2); // must be same type p3 = p2

    // more complex pair
    std::pair< std::pair<float,int>, std::string > p4 = { {20.5, -3}, "abc"};
    std::cout << p4.first.first << " " << p4.first.second << " " << p4.second <<
std::endl; // 20.5 -3 abc
}
```

Array inside Pair

```
#include <iostream>

int main() {
```

```

std::pair<std::string*,std::pair<int, float>> p;

p.first = new std::string[5];
p.first[0] = "a";
p.first[1] = "b";
p.first[2] = "c";

p.second = std::make_pair(10,1.5);

std::cout << p.first[0] << " " << p.second.first << " " << p.second.second;
}

```

Template

- Template allows “same code, different data types”
- `std::pair` is a “class template”
 - In generic term, pair is defined as `pair<T1, T2>`
- To use `std::pair`, we must supply “Type information” to the template what T1 and T2 should be.

STD and Namespace

- The “Fullname” of `cout` is `std::cout`
- `std` is a namespace
- We need to use fullname
 - Too lazy? use “using” keywords

```
#include <iostream>
```

```
// this tells C++ that when we say cout, we mean std::cout;
using std::cout;
```

```
int main() {
    // we still need to use std::endl
    cout << "Yes" << std::endl;
}
```

```
#include <iostream>
```

```
// this tells C++ that when we say something that it does not understand, C++ should
try to use std as its namespace
```

```
// this is VERY BAD PRACTICE in real world.
// 10/10 not recommend
// ... but it's ok for this class
using namespace std;
```

```
int main() {
    cout << "Yes" << endl;
}
```

std::vector

A linear storage of a single data type

Basic

```
#include <iostream>
#include <vector>
```

```
using namespace std;

int main() {
    vector<int> v1;
    cout << "Size of v1 is " << v1.size() << endl; // 0

    vector<int> v2 = {2,3,4};

    cout << v2[1] << endl; // 3
    v1 = v2;
    v1[0] = 20;

    cout << v1[0] << ", " << v1[1] << v1[2] << endl; // 20, 3, 4

    v1.push_back(99);
    cout << v1.size() << endl;
}
```

- Vector starts with empty element
- Use size() to get the number of element
- Use empty() to check if a vector has any element

Initialize

- With specific size
- With specific size and starting value

```
#include <iostream>
#include <vector>

using namespace std;

void print_vector(vector<float> v) {
    for (size_t i = 0; i < v.size(); i++) {
        cout << v[i] << " ";
    }
    cout << endl;
}

int main() {
    vector<float> v1(10); // size = 10
    print_vector(v1);

    vector<float> v2(5,3.55); // size = 5, default = 3.55
    print_vector(v2);

    vector<float> v3(v2);
    print_vector(v3);
}
```

Vector Access & Overflow Problem

Access

```
#include <iostream>
#include <vector>

using namespace std;
```

```

int main() {
    vector<float> v1(2);
    vector<float> v2(2);

    cout << "-- v1 --" << endl;
    for (int i = 0; i < 7; i++) {
        v1[i] = i; // this automatically assigns value
        cout << i << ": " << v1[i] << endl; // print nonsense if out of range
    }
    cout << "-- v2 --" << endl;
    for (int i = 0; i < 7; i++) {
        cout << i << ": " << v2[i] << endl; // print "4 5 6" due to buffer overflow (take
space of v1)
    }
    cout << "using at" << endl;
    v2.at(1) = 99;
    // this will cause exception 'std::out_of_range'
    for (int i = 0; i < 7; i++) {
        cout << ": " << v2.at(i) << endl;
    }
}

```

- Operator [] won't check for 'out-of-range'
 - Reading, writing beyond size is undefined
 - Might crash
 - Grader will give 'x'
- at () will check bound
 - But slower

You should be careful of using spaces, it can access illegal memories and cause weird behaviors.

Modifying Vector

Resizing

- Resize change the size
 - Enlarge will fill with default

```

#include <iostream>
#include <vector>

using namespace std;

void print(vector<int> v) {
    cout << "Size of V is " << v.size() << ":";
    for (int i = 0; i < v.size(); i++) cout << v[i] << ", ";
    cout << endl;
}

int main() {
    vector<int> v(3,10);
    print(v); // 10,10,10,
    v.resize(6);
    print(v); // 10,10,10,0,0,0,
    v.resize(1);
    print(v); // 10,
    v.resize(7);
}

```

```
    print(v); // 10,0,0,0,0,0,0
}
```

Modify

- pop_back
 - Erase last element
- insert(position,value)
- erase(position)
- Careful!
 - Both insert and erase position must be valid
 - If not valid, it can crash

```
#include <iostream>
#include <vector>

using namespace std;

void print(vector<int> v) {
    cout << "Size of V is " << v.size() << ": ";
    for (int i = 0; i < v.size(); i++) cout << v[i] << ", ";
    cout << endl;
}

int main() {
    vector<int> v(3,8); // v.begin() is called iterator
    v.insert( v.begin(), 1); // 1, 8, 8, 8
    v.insert( v.begin()+3, 2); // 1, 8, 8, 2, 8
    v.insert( v.end(), 3); // 1, 8, 8, 2, 8, 3
    print(v);
    v.erase(v.begin()); // 8, 8, 2, 8, 3
    v.erase(v.begin()+2); // 8, 8, 8, 3
    print(v);
    v.pop_back(); // 8, 8, 8
    print(v);
}
```

std::find & std::sort

Find

- find(a,b,c)
 - a and b are position (iterator)
 - find c from a to before b
 - if not found return b
- Must #include <algorithm>

```
#include <iostream>
#include <vector>
#include <algorithm>

using namespace std;

int main() {
    vector<int> v = {9,-1,3,7,5,2,1,4};

    int x = 5;
    if ( find(v.begin(), v.end(), x) != v.end() ) {
```

```

    cout << "found" << endl;
} else {
    cout << "not found" << endl;
}

if (find(v.begin(), v.begin()+3, 3) != v.begin()+3) cout << "FOUND" << endl;

// How many "YES" will be printed? (CHEAT QUESTION)
if (find(v.begin(), v.begin()+2, x) != v.end()) cout << "YES" << endl; // YES
if (find(v.begin(), v.begin()+4, x) != v.end()) cout << "YES" << endl; // YES
if (find(v.begin()+4, v.begin()+2, x) != v.end()) cout << "YES" << endl; // YES
if (find(v.begin()+4, v.begin()+8, x) != v.end()) cout << "YES" << endl; // YES
// First 3 can't even give v.end(), last did find so it gave that position instead
}

```

Sort

```

#include <iostream>
#include <vector>
#include <algorithm>

using namespace std;

void print(vector<int> v) {
    cout << "Size of V is " << v.size() << ": ";
    for (int i = 0; i < v.size(); i++) cout << v[i] << ", ";
    cout << endl;
}

int main() {
    vector<int> v = {9,-1,3,7,5,2,1,4};

    print(v); // 9, -1, 3, 7, 5, 2, 1, 4,
    sort(v.begin()+2, v.begin()+6);
    print(v); // 9, -1, 2, 3, 5, 7, 1, 4,
}

```

Functions that Work with Vector

- sort
- find
- min_element
- max_element
- lower_bound
- upper_bound

Need to use *iterator*

Lecture 4

Vector Iterator

Iterator

- Iterator is a *pointer to position*
- First element is `begin()`
- The one *after* the last element is `end()`
- For insert, valid position is from `begin()` to `end()`, inclusive

- For erase, valid position is from `begin()` up to *before* `end()`
- Different vector, different iterator
 - `v1.end()` is not the same as `v2.end()`

Iterator Arithmetic

- We can add by integer to an iterator
- We can subtract two iterators of the same type
- We can use increment (`++`) and decrement (`--`)

```
#include <iostream>
#include <vector>
using namespace std;

int main() {
    vector<int>    v1 = {0, 10, 20, 30, 40, 50, 60, 70, 80};
    vector<float> v2 = {0.2, -4, 0.13, 3.14, 2.73};

    vector<int>::iterator it1 = v1.begin() + 3; // 30
    vector<float>::iterator it2 = v2.end();      // after 2.73

    // getting value at iterator by using "*" operator
    cout << *it1 << endl;      // 30
    cout << *(it2-1) << endl;  // 2.73
    cout << *it1+2 << endl;    // 32

    // iterator arithmetics
    vector<int>::iterator it3 = it1 + 2;
    cout << "data at it3: " << *it3 << endl; // 50
    cout << "difference of it3,it1: " << (it3 - it1) << endl; // 2

    vector<float>::iterator it4 = v2.end();
    it4--;
    cout << "data of it4: " << *it4 << endl; // 2.73

    // this cannot be done
    // cout << (it2 - it1) << endl;
}
```

Iterator All Elements by Iterator

```
#include <iostream>
#include <vector>
using namespace std;

int main() {
    vector<int>    v1 = {0, 10, 20, 30, 40, 50, 60, 70, 80};
    vector<float> v2 = {0.2, -4, 0.13, 3.14, 2.73};

    cout << "----v1----" << endl;
    auto it = v1.begin();
    while (it < v1.end()) { // should use != in other iterator types
        cout << it - v1.begin() << ": " << *it << endl;
        it++;
    }

    cout << "----v2----" << endl;
    for (auto it = v2.begin(); it < v2.end(); it++) {
```

```

    cout << it - v2.begin() << ": " << *it << endl;
}
}

```

- We can compare iterator
 - Beware!! Iterator of some data structure does not support > or < comparator
 - But for vectors, it's ok
- We can use auto keyword to automatically define a type of a variable

Iterator Invalidate

Some Functions that Use Iterators

```

#include <iostream>
#include <vector>
#include <algorithm>
using namespace std;

int main() {
    vector<int> v1 = {3,0,1,2,4,-3,9,8};
    vector<float> v2 = {10.2, -4, 0.13, 3.14, 2.73};

    auto it1 = min_element(v1.begin(),v1.end());
    auto it2 = max_element(v2.begin()+2,v2.end());

    cout << *it1 << endl; // -3
    cout << *it2 << endl; // 3.14
}

```

- min_element and max_element get the iterator of min, max element

New Idiom that Iterate All Elements

- Shorter syntax for loop
- Can use reference operator (&)

```

#include <iostream>
#include <vector>
#include <algorithm>
#include <string>
using namespace std;

int main() {
    vector<string> v1 = {"somchai", "somying", "somsak"};

    // range-based for loop
    for (string x : v1) {
        // x is a copy of each element in v1
        cout << x << ", ";
    }

    // using reference
    // x is THE element of v1, meaning we can modify it
    for (auto &x : v1) { x.replace(0,4,"--"); }
    for (auto &x : v1) { cout << x << " "; } // --hai --ing --ak
    cout << endl;
}

```

Iterator Invalidation

```
#include <iostream>
#include <vector>
using namespace std;

int main() {
    vector<int> v1 = {10,20};

    auto = v1.end()-1; // this points to 20
    // we resize (enlarge) v1, now [it] is invalidated
    v1.resize(10);

    // this might not crash but it actually points to somewhere not in v1
    cout << *it << endl;

    // this will crash the program
    // v1.insert(it,99);
    for (auto &x: v1) {cout << x << " ";}
}
```

- Some operation on the data structure *invalidate* existing iterators
 - For vector, this includes *addition* and *deletion* of element (including *resize*)

Set

- Storing distinct data of same type
 - The data type must be *comparable*, i.e., we can tell if a is more or less than b
- Somewhat slow insert
- Fast look up
- Fast erase
- Iterator starts from “minimum element” and goes in increasing value direction
 - Can be used to (somewhat) fast storing

Basic

- Notice that s does not include duplicate elements
- Also see that when we iterate, member is sorted
 - This is distinct characteristic of set

```
#include <iostream>
#include <set>
using namespace std;

int main() {
    set<int> s = {4,1,3,2,1,1,3,4};

    cout << "Size of s is " << s.size() << endl; // 4

    s.insert(10);
    s.insert(5);
    s.erase(3);

    cout << "member of s: "; // 1 2 4 5 10
    for (auto it = s.begin(); it != s.end(); it++) {
        cout << *it << " ";
    }
}
```

Somewhat Slow Insert, Iterate but Fast Find

- We will see this in the detail around last part of this course
 - For now, please believe that
 - If there are N elements in the set
 - Insert takes time directly proportional to $\log(N)$
 - Each `it++` or `it--` takes times directly proportional to $\log(N)$
 - Each find takes time directly proportional to $\log(N)$

Set Iterator

Demos Comparing Vector & Set

- Insert
 - Vector is faster than set
- Find random number
 - Set is much faster than vector

Set Iterator

- We cannot do `s.begin() + x`
 - Because, going to the next element (which is the *successor*) in set is not as fast as vector, c++ forbids `begin() + x`
 - alternatively, you can use `auto it = s.begin(); for (int i = 0; i < 0; i++) {it++;}`
 - We cannot *compare by > or <*
- We can still use `it++` or `it--` to go to the next or previous (*successor* or *predecessor*) or `x`

```
#include <iostream>
#include <set>
using namespace std;

int main() {
    set< pair<string,int> > s = { {"somchai",5}, {"abc",6}, {"abcd",-3}, {"somchai",-4},
                                {"z",0}, {"z",-1}, {"z",9} };

    for (auto &x : s) {
        cout << x.first << "," << x.second << endl;
    }

    cout << "-- find --" << endl;
    auto it = s.find({"z",-1});
    cout << (*it).first << "," << (*it).second << endl;
    it--;
    it--;
    cout << it->first << "," << it->second << endl;
    it++;
    cout << it->first << "," << it->second << endl;
}
```

Additional Function

- `set.lower_bound`
- `set.upper_bound`
- `set.count`

std::map

Associative data structure with same property as set

Map

- Is very similar to Python's dict in usage
- Is internally implemented as a set with "pair" data type
 - *Same properties, same limitations* as set but more convenience to use as associative data structure
- Associative (mapping) between a *Key Type* and a *Mapped Type*

Basic

```
#include <iostream>
#include <map>
using namespace std;

int main() {
    // map between "Key Type" string and "Mapped Type" int
    map<string,int> m;
    m["somchai"] = 10;
    m["somying"] = -5;
    cout << "Size = " << m.size() << endl; // 2

    // accessing unseen key create a map with default value
    cout << "m[\"xxx\"] = " << m["xxx"] << endl; // 0
    // each element is a pair of key type and mapped type
    for (auto it = m.begin(); it != m.end(); it++) {
        cout << it->first << " is mapped to " << it->second << endl;
    } // somchai: 10, somying: -5

    // this will create mapping "abc" to 0 first and then increase it
    m["abc"]++;
    cout << "now size = " << m.size() << endl; // 4
    for (auto &x : m) {
        cout << x.first << " is mapped to " << x.second << endl;
    } // abc: 1, somchai: 10, somying: -5, xxx: 0
}
```

Checking If Map Has This Key?

- Use find()

```
#include <iostream>
#include <map>
using namespace std;

int main() {
    map<int,string> m;
    m[1] = "somchai";
    m[99] = "nattee";

    int k = 99;
    map<int,string>::iterator it;
    if ((it = m.find()) != m.end()) {
        cout << "Key " << it->first << " is mapped to " << it->second << endl;
    } else {
        cout << "Key " << k << " does not exist in m." << endl;
    }

    // this is not the correct way to check if key exists why??
    if (m[k] != "") {
        cout << "exists" << endl;
    }
}
```

```

    } else {
        cout << "does not exists" << endl;
    }
}

```

Requirement of std::set and std::map

- Set data type and map key type must be comparable
 - We must be able to compare *order* of two elements
- Type that we can use directly
 - int, bool, float, string, double, char, ... and most of other numerical data type
 - Pair can also be used if both the types of first and second are comparable
 - Pair compare first then second

Practice Reading C++ Docs

- Both map and set has *insert* and *erase* function
- What is the return value of both function of each data structure?
 - For `set<int> s`, can we do `s.erase(20)`
 - For `map<string, bool> m`, can we do `m.erase("Somchai")??`
- If we wish to erase element from index 3 to index 4096 in a vector
 - Is there any function from vector that we can easily use?

Pair-Sum Problem

- Pair Sum
 - Given an array of integers, our task is to find whether there exists a pair of elements in the array such that their summation equal to X
- Input:
 - Array of integers (our main array); this is a large array
 - M values of X , for each value X , we have to determine if a pair whose sum equal to X exists.
- Output:
 - For each value of X , print "YES" if we found such pair; print "NO" otherwise

Answer

```

#include <iostream>
#include <array>
#include <algorithm>
#include <cmath>

using namespace std;

bool check(int a[], int n, int X);

int main() {
    int a[15] = {323, 232, 138, 230, 437, 176, 127, 111, 329, 1, 296, 12, 3, 2, 6};
    int n = sizeof(a) / sizeof(a[0]);
    int X = 10000;

    cout << check(a,n,X);
}

bool check(int a[], int n, int X) {
    for (int i=0; i<(pow(2,n)); i++) {
        int t = X;
        for (int j=0; j<n; j++) {
            if (i / ((int) pow(2,j+1)) % 2 == 0) {
                t -= a[j];
            }
        }
    }
}

```

```

    }

    if (0 == t) {
        cout << "YES" << endl;
        return true;
    }
    if (0 > t) {break;}
}
}
cout << "NO" << endl;
return false;
} // My stupid solution where I brute force every possible combinations

```

Lecture 5

Stack

การเพิ่ม / ลบข้อมูลในกองซ้อน

- ข้อมูล เข้าหลัง ออกก่อน (Last_In First-Out)

กองซ้อน : **stack**

```

bool        empty();
unsigned    size();
T           top();           // ดูบนสุด
void        push(T element); // ใส่ข้อมูล
void        pop();           // เอาออก

```

ข้อควรระวัง

- ใช้ `#include <stack>`
- `top()` ตอนไม่มีข้อมูล → พัง
- `pop()` ตอนไม่มีข้อมูล → พัง
- `stack` ไม่มี iterator
 - ▶ ดูได้เฉพาะข้อมูลที่เพิ่งใส่เข้าไปล่าสุด (`top`)
 - ▶ ไม่มี `begin()`, `end()` ให้ใช้
 - ▶ ถ้าอยากมาดูข้อมูลทุกตัวใน `stack` ต้องจำใจ `pop` ข้อมูลออกมา

ตัวอย่างการใช้งาน **Stack**

- การตรวจสอบโครงสร้างแบบซ้อนกัน เช่น การใส่วงเล็บ () { } [] ...
- การจัดเก็บตัวแปรและการทำ `function calls`
- การประมวลผลนิพจน์ทางคณิตศาสตร์ `postFix` → Discrete Math
- การทำ `undo/redo`
- การค้นคำตอบแบบ `depth-first search`
- ...

Parentheses Checking

การตรวจสอบการใส่วงเล็บ

- ถูก : ({ () [{ }] })
- ผิด : เปิดปิดไม่ตรงกัน ({])
- ผิด : มีปิดมากเกินไป ({ () })) }
- ผิด : มีเปิดมากเกินไป ({ () }
- วิธีทำ
 - ▶ อ่านมาทีละตัว

- ▶ ถ้าเป็นวงเล็บเปิด ให้ **push** ลง **stack**
- ▶ ถ้าเป็นวงเล็บปิด ให้ **pop** จาก **stack** มาตรวจสอบว่าเป็นวงเล็บเปิดที่ตรงกันกับวงเล็บปิดหรือไม่
- ▶ เมื่อใดที่อยาก **pop** ถ้า **isEmpty** แสดงว่า ปิดมีมากไป
- ▶ เมื่ออ่านเสร็จหมด **stack** ยังมีข้อมูล แสดงว่า เปิดมีมากไป

Function Call Stack

Using Stack in Java Virtual Machine

- jvm uses java stack to store
 - ▶ state of method calls
 - ▶ parameters and local variables
 - ▶ temporary memory for computation (operand stack)

```
public class StackFrame {
    public static void main(String[] args) {
        a(3,2);
        b(5);
    }
    static void a(int x, int y) {
        int z = x/y;
        b(z);
    }
    static void b(int x) {
        ++x;
    }
}
```

We make a stack frame of function calls, each element consists of arguments and returning argument of the function. Function main contains args and RA JVM and calls a, a will be added to stack and contains z, y, x, and RA 04:, then it calls b. After b is finished, it will come back to line 9 and popped itself. It will do a and go to line 4, and so on. Arguments in each functions are separated variables.

```
#include <iostream>

using namespace std;

void test(int x) {
    if (x > 0) {
        int y = x-1;
        cout << "I am test(" << x << "). continue... " << endl;
        test(y);
        cout << "now x is " << x << endl;
    } else {
        cout << "I am test(0). stop"
    }
}

int main() {
    test(4);
    return 0;
}
```

Output

```
I am test(4). continue...
I am test(3). continue...
I am test(2). continue...
I am test(1). continue...
```

```
I am test(0). stop
now x is 1
now x is 2
now x is 3
now x is 4
```

Postfix Evaluation

Infix and Postfix Expressions

- infix (เติมกลาง)
 - $a + b * c / d - 2, (a + b) * c / (d - 2)$
 - use order of operations
 - use parentheses
- postfix (เติมหลัง)
 - $a b c * d / + 2 -, a b + c * d 2 - /$
 - order is from left to right
 - parentheses may be omitted

```
1  2  +  3  *  4  1  -  /
      3  3  *  4  1  -  /
          9  4  1  -  /
          9          3  /
                      3
```

Calculate Postfix Expressions with Stack

- Value of $2 3 + 4 5 - 6 * + ?$
- Use stack to help
- Solution
 - Check each element in postfix from left to right
 - If it is operand, push stack
 - If it is operator, pop elements from stack as many as operator needs, then push the result
 - After complete, answer will be at the top of stack

Convert Infix to Postfix

Use Stack to Convert

- input : infix expression
- output : postfix expression
- Steps
 - Read each element in infix
 - If it is operand, move it to the back of output
 - If it is operator
 - May pop operator to the end of output
 - push operator to stack
 - If all infix is read
 - pop all operators to the end of input

```
string infix2postfix(string &infix) {
    int n = infix.length();
    string postfix = "";
    stack<char> s;
    for (int i=0; i<n; i++) { // Read each element
        char token = infix[i];
        if (token เป็น operand) {
            postfix += token; // if operand, add to output
        } else {
```

```

    while ( ??? ) {
        postfix += s.top(); // if operator, pop stack to result,
        s.pop();
    }
    s.push(token);          // then push new operator
}
}
while (!s.empty()) {postfix += s.top(); s.pop();}
return postfix;
}

```

Priority of Operators

input 2 * 3 + 4

read	output	stack	
2			
*	2		
3	2	*	
+	2 3	*	(* comes before and is more important than +)
4	2 3 *	+	
	2 3 * 4	+	
	2 3 * 4 +		

input 2 + 3 * 4

read	output	stack	
2			
+	2		
3	2	+	
*	2 3	+	
	2 3	* +	
	2 3 *	+	
	2 3 * +		

Code to Compare Priority

```

string infix2postfix(string &infix) {
    int n = infix.length();
    string postfix = "";
    stack<char> s;
    for (int i=0; i<n; i++) {
        char token = infix[i];
        if (priority.find(token) != priority.end()) {
            postfix += token;
        } else {
            int p = priority[token]; // Get priority of the new operator
            while ( !s.empty() && priority[s.top()] >= p ) { // lazy evaluation; left first
                postfix += s.top(); // pop if top operator is not less important than new op
                s.pop();
            }
            s.push(token);
        }
    }
    while (!s.empty()) {postfix += s.top(); s.pop();}
    return postfix;
}

```

Lazy Evaluation

Setting Priority of Operators

- $\wedge$ represents power 7
- $\wedge$ before $+$ $-$ $*$ $/$
- $*$ $/$ before $+$ $-$
- $*$ same as $/$
- $+$ same as $-$

```
map<char,int> priority =
    {{'+',3},{'-',3},{'*',5},{ '/',5},{'^',7}};
```

Complications with Parentheses

- In parentheses is like sub-expression
- Open parentheses always push (very high priority)
- Close parentheses is very low priority
- If found, pop until sees open parentheses

input 2 * (3 + 4)

read	output	stack
2		
*	2	
(	2	*
3	2	(*
+	2 3	(*
4	2 3	+ (*
)	2 3 4	+ (* (pop all)
	2 3 4 + *	

```
int p = priority[token];
while ( !s.empty() && priority[s.top()] >= p ) {
    postfix += s.top();
    s.pop();
}
s.push(token);

int p = outpriority[token];
while ( !s.empty() && inpriority[s.top()] >= p ) {
    postfix += s.top();
    s.pop();
}
if (token == ')') s.pop(); else s.push(token);
```

Priority of Operators with Parentheses

	+	-	*	/	$\wedge$	(	)
In expression	3	3	5	5	7	9	1
In stack	3	3	5	5	7	0	

Right to Left Operator

	+	-	*	/	$\wedge$	(	)
In expression	2	2	4	4	8	9	1
In stack	3	3	5	5	7	0	

Note Power in expression is more important than in stack

input 2 + 3 - 4 ^ 5 ^ 6

read	output	stack
2		
+	2	
3	2	+
-	2 3	+
4	2 3 +	-
^	2 3 + 4	^ -
5	2 3 + 4	^ -
^	2 3 + 4 5	^ -
6	2 3 + 4 5	^ ^ -
	2 3 + 4 5 6	^ ^ -
	2 3 + 4 5 6 ^ ^ -	

Conclusion

- Implementations of stack to solve problems
- Main operations: push / pop / top
- Make stack with array
- If reserve enough space, all runs is $\Theta(1)$; constant time

Lecture 6

Queue

- Just like a normal queue in real life.
 - First-in-First-Out data structure
 - One way in (back of queue), one way out (front of queue)
 - push = add data to the back of the queue
 - pop = remove data from the head of the queue

Basic

```
#include <iostream>
#include <queue>
#include <vector>

using namespace std;

int main() {
    queue<int> q;
    q.push(1);
    q.push(2);
    q.push(3);
    while (q.empty() == false) {
        cout << q.front() << endl;
        q.pop();
    }
    cout << "-- example 2 --" << endl;
    queue<vector<int>> q2;
    vector<int> v1 = {1,2,3};
    vector<int> v2 = {99,88,-1};
    q2.push( v1 );
```

```

q2.push( v2 );
cout << q2.back()[1] << endl;
cout << q2.front().size() << endl;
auto x = q2.front();
q2.pop();
cout << x[0] << endl;
}

size_t    q.size()
bool      q.empty()
void      q.push(T data)
void      q.pop()
T         q.front()
T         q.back()

```

Limitation

- Same limitation as stack
 - No iterator
 - No `begin()`, `end()`
 - Can only access front and back of the queue
 - If we wish to access all members, we have to pop it all
 - Do not call `front()`, `back()`, `pop()` when the queue is empty

Radix Sort

Queue Application: Fast sorting with no comparison

Overview

- Put all data in an array
- For each digit X , from LSD to MSD
 - PUT TO QUEUE step: Sort by digit X by putting all of data from the array into B queues
 - B is the base of the number
 - For example, for a base 10 number, we will have Queue[0] to Queue[9]
 - Put into the queue labelled with that digit
 - GET FROM QUEUE step: Start from queue 0 to queue $B - 1$, remove data from the queue and put back to the array

Example

Input 115 15 42 305 21 8 463

Round 1 (digit 0), from queue

(0)	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)
					305				
					15				
	21	42	463		115			8	

⇒ 21 42 463 115 15 305 8

Data is now sorted by the last digits, because we pop from queue 0 to 9

Round 2 (digit 1), from queue

(0)	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)
8	15								
305	115	21		42		463			

⇒ 305 8 115 15 21 42 463

Data is now sorted by last two digits, because we goes from queue 0 to 9, which is grouped by digit 1 and the data in each queue is sorted by the last digit.

Round 3 (digit 2), from queue

(0)	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)
42									
21									
15									
8	115		305	463					

⇒ 8 15 21 42 115 305 463

Code

```
#define base 10

int getDigit(int v, int k) {
    // return the kth digit of v (MSD is digit 0)
    int i;
    for (int i=0; i<k; i++) v /= base;
    return v % base;
}

// d = number of digits
void radixSort(vector<int> &data, int d) {
    queue<int> q[base];
    for (int k=0; k<d; k++) {
        for (auto &x : data) {
            q[getDigit(x,k)].push(x);
            for (int i=0, j=0; i<base; i++) {
                while(!q[i].empty()) {
                    data[j++] = q[i].front(); q[i].pop();
                }
            }
        }
    }
}
```

Breadth First Search

Queue Application: Gotta generate 'em all

The Problem

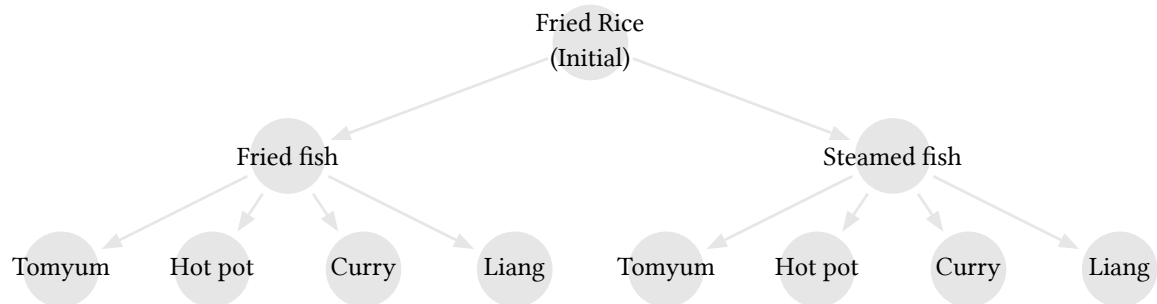
- Given a positive integer X
- Start with a number 1, find a sequence of arithmetics operations, either “ $\times 3$ ”, or “ $/ 2$ ” that makes 1 into X
 - the $/ 2$ is integer division, e.g., $5 / 3 = 1$ (not 1.6666)
 - The sequence must be as short as possible
- Example
 - $10 = 1 \times 3 \times 3 \times 3 \times 3 / 2 / 2 / 2$
 - $31 = 1 \times 3 \times 3 \times 3 \times 3 \times 3 \times 3 / 2 / 2 / 2 / 2 / 2 \times 3 \times 3 / 2$

The Idea

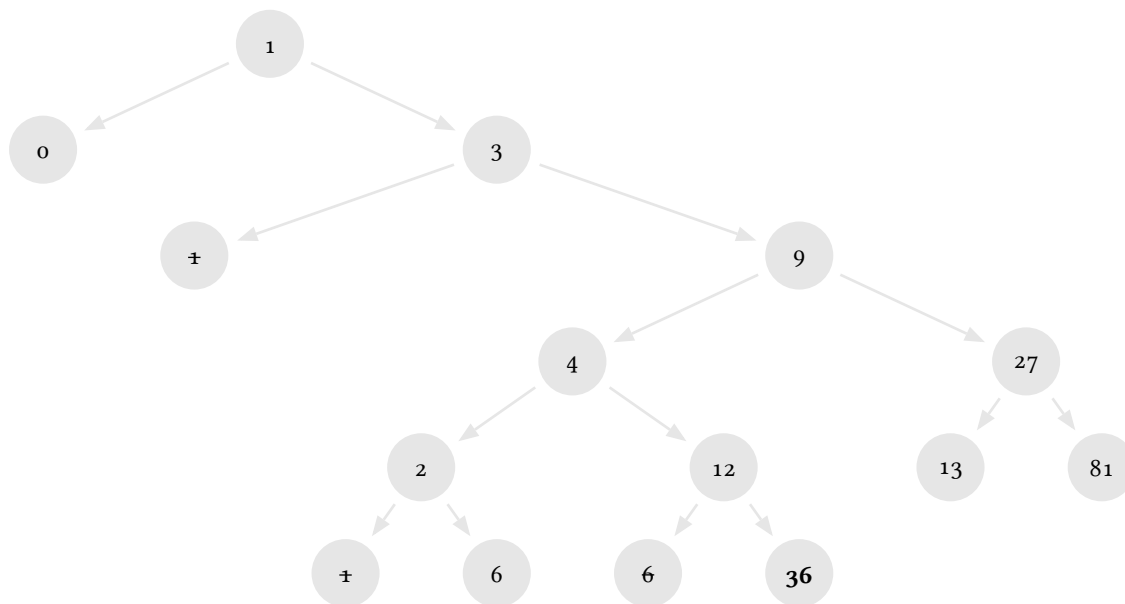
- Generate all possible sequences
 - Start with length 1, 2, 3, ... until we find one that gives X
- This is called an *exhaustive search* algorithm
 - Systematically enumerate all possible somethings

Tree Structure (Search Tree)

- A structure to illustrate *search* algorithm
- Divide into steps
 - Start with *initial solution*
 - For each possible outcome (called a *state*) of each step, *generate all* proper possible *next step*
 - Also, check if the current step is what we needed
- Written as a diagram of *node* and *edge*

Enumerate**M3D2 Problem & Solution****Back to Our Problem**

- Start with 1
- Each step is either * 3 or / 2
- Issue: might get repeated number
 - Solution: if we have found it, do not generate new step

**M3D2 Code****Code**

- `Queue` makes ordering of how we pick a state to enumerate
- From top to bottom and left to right

```

void m3d2(int target) {
    map<int, int> prev;
    queue<int> q;
  
```

```

int v = 1;
q.push(1); prev[1] = -1;
while (!q.empty()) {
    v = q.front(); q.pop();
    if (v == target) break;
    int v2 = v/2;
    int v3 = v*3;
    if (prev[v2] == 0) {q.push(v2); prev[v2] = v;}
    if (prev[v3] == 0) {q.push(v3); prev[v3] = v;}
}
if (v == target) showSolution(v, prev);
}

```

Display Solution

x	0	1	2	3	4	6	9	12	13	27	36	39	40
prev[x]	1	-1	4	1	9	2	3	4	27	9	12	13	81

showSolution

```

void showSolution(int v, map<int,int>& prev) {
    string out = "";
    while (prev[v] != -1) {
        if (prev[v] * 3 == v) {
            out = "x3" + out;
        } else {
            out = "/2" + out;
        }
        v = prev[v];
    }
    out = "1" + out;
    cout << out << endl;
}

```

⇒ 36 = 1 * 3 * 3 / 2 * 3 * 3

Lecture 7

Priority Queue

Queue with privilege

Intro

- Priority Queue is ...
 - A queue with priority
 - Item with high priority is promoted to the front of the queue
 - There is *no back of the queue*
 - Priority is defined by having more value
 - Comparison, by default, is to use operator <, i.e., if item A < B is true, then B *has higher priority*
 - We can have custom comparator
- Has the *same interface* as stack

Example

For intuitive purpose only! This is not really how priority_queue work internally

```

push(10)
< 10      >

```

```
push(30)
< 30 10 >
```

```
push(20)
< 30 20 10 >
```

```
pop()
< 20 10 >
```

```
push(15)
< 20 15 10 >
|
top
```

Basic

```
size_t      q.size()
bool        q.empty()
void        q.push()
void        q.pop()
T           q.top()
* there is no q.back()
```

Limitation

- Same limitation as stack, queue
 - *no iterator*
 - No `begin()`, `end()`
 - Use `#include <queue>`
 - Can only access `top()` of the queue
 - If we wish to access all members, we have to pop it all
 - Do not call `top()`, `pop()` when the queue is empty
- The data type must be *comparable* (similar to set and map)

Class

Quick Summary

- Syntax
 - class declaration must end with ;
 - Function definition can be outside of the class
 - Access modifier is `public:`, `private:`, `protected:`
 - Constructor is a function with the same name of the class with no return type
- Object is a variable (instantiation) of a class
 - When declared, a constructor is called

Example 1

```
#include <iostream>
#include <string>
using namespace std;

class Student {
public:
    void setFullName(string name, string surname) {
        this->name = name;
        this->surname = surname;
    }
    string getFullName() {
```

```

        return "[" + name + " " + surname + "];";
    }
private:
    string name, surname;
};

int main() {
    Student a;
    Student b;
    a.setFullName("nattee", "niparnan");
    cout << a.getFullName() << endl;
    cout << b.getFullName() << endl;
}

```

Declaring class before writing functions

```

class Student {
public:
    void setFullName(string name, string surname);
    string getFullName();
private:
    string name,surname;
};

void Student::setFullName(string name, string surname) {
    this->name = name;
    this->surname = surname;
}

string Student::getFullName() {
    return "[" + name + " " + surname + "];";
}

```

Output

```

[nattee niparnan]
[ ]

```

Example 2: Constructor

```

#include <iostream>
#include <string>
using namespace std;

class Student {
public:
    Student(float score) {gpax = score;}
    void setFullName(string name, string surname) {
        this->name = name;
        this->surname = surname;
    }
    string getFullName() {return "[" + name + " " + surname + "];"}
    bool is1stHonor() {return gpax >= 3.6;}
private:
    string name, surname;
    float gpax;
};

int main() {

```

```

Student a(2.95);
a.setFullName("nattee", "niparnan");

cout << a.getFullName() << endl;
if (a.is1stHonor()) {cout << "YES" endl;} else {cout << "NO" << endl;}
// Student b; // <-- cannot compile because there is no default constructor
}

```

Operator Overloading

How C++ has a function for each operator

Overview

- Let say we write `a + b` when `a` and `b` is an object of some classes
 - This can be considered the same as calling a function `plus(a,b)`
 - C++ allows us to write a function for many operator and use it as an operator
 - For example we can write a function `times(a,b)` and let it be used as `a * b`
- This is what we called operator overloading

Instead of writing

```

Matrix multiply(Matrix a1, Matrix a2) {
    multiply(a, multiply(b,c))
}

```

We want to write

```

Matrix a, b, c
a * (b * c)

```

Example

```

#include <queue>
#include <iostream>
#include <string>

using namespace std;

// use operator + symbol that will be overloaded
string operator*(string & lhs, const int & rhs) {
    string result = "";
    for (int i=0; i<rhs; i++) {
        result = result + lhs;
    }
    return result;
}

int main() {
    string a = "abc ";
    cout << (a * 3) << endl; // this gives "abc abc abc "
}

```

- Function must be named operator followed by the operator that we will overload
- Some operator takes two parameters (such as `+`, `-`, `*`, `/`, `%`)
- Some takes one (such as `++`, `--`, `!`, `*`, `&`)

Overloading less-than operator

Using with data structure that require sorting

- We have seen several data structure that requires comparability of the data, such as set, map and priority queue
- If we want to use our class with these data structure, we need to tell them how can we use them
- There are multiple ways to achieve this
 - Let us consider operator overloading

Overloading <

- As stated earlier, set, map, and priority_queue use *operator <* to compare two elements
- It does not work if we overload *operator >*

```
class Student {
public:
    Student(float score, string a, string b) {
        name = a;
        surname = b;
        gpax = score;
    }
    bool is1stHonor() {return gpax >= 3.6;}
    // not good, now our data is public
    string name, surname;
    float gpax;
    // overloading <
    bool operator<(const Student & other) const {
        return gpax < other.gpax;
    }
};

int main() {
    Student a(2.95, "nattee", "niparnan");
    Student b(4.00, "attawith", "sudsang");
    cout << (a < b) << endl; // 1
    priority_queue<Student> pq;
    pq.push(a);
    pq.push(b);
    cout << pq.top().name << endl; // attawith
}
```

Custom Comparator

Why custom?

- By overloading *operator <*, we have defined default ordering of that class
- What if we need another ordering, just for this *priority_queue* only
 - For example, *Student* is ordered by *gpax* by default
 - What if we want our *priority_queue* to order by name instead, while keeping the *Student* default ordering elsewhere
 - Better, can we have multiple *priority_queue* with different ordering?
- Can be done via comparator class

Example

```
#include <iostream>
#include <string>
#include <queue>
```

```

using namespace std;

class Student {...};

// Comparator class use () overloading
class StudentByNameComparator {
public:
    bool operator()(const Student& lhs,
                    const Student& rhs) {
        return lhs.name < rhs.name;
    }
};

class GpaxThenName {
public:
    bool operator()(const Student& lhs,
                    const Student& rhs) {
        if (lhs.gpax == rhs.gpax)
            return lhs.name < rhs.name;
        return lhs.gpax < rhs.gpax;
    }
};

int main() {
    Student a(2.95, "nattee", "niparnan");
    Student b(4.00, "attawith", "sudsang");
    Student c(4.00, "vishnu", "kotrajaras");
    cout << (a < b) << endl; // 1
    StudentByNameComparator comp1;
    GpaxThenName comp2;

    cout << comp1(a,b) << endl; // 0; can use like function

    // Use 3 template parameters
    priority_queue<Student, // class to compare
                  vector<Student>, // vector of that class
                  StudentByNameComparator> pq(comp1); // comparator class

    pq.push(a);
    pq.push(b);
    cout << pq.top().name << endl; // nattee

    priority_queue<Student,
                  vector<Student>,
                  GpaxThenName> pq2(comp2);

    pq2.push(a);
    pq2.push(b);
    pq2.push(c);
    cout << pq2.top().name << endl; // vishnu
}

```

Another Method, lambda-function

```

#include <iostream>
#include <string>
#include <queue>
using namespace std;

```

```
int main() {
    auto compare = [](const string& lhs, const string& rhs) {
        return lhs.size() < rhs.size();
    };

    cout << "Result of compare function = " << compare("xxx","z") << endl;

    priority_queue<string,vector<string>,decltype(compare)> pq(compare);
    pq.push("somchai");
    pq.push("z");
    pq.push("abc");
    while (pq.empty() == false) {
        cout << pq.top() << endl;
        pq.pop();
    }
}
```

Output

```
Result of compare function = 0
somchai
abc
z
```

Priority Queue Template

Templating of priority_queue

- priority_queue requires 3 template parameters
- priority_queue<T, Container = vector<T>, Compare = less<T>>
- The first one is required (which is the type of the data)
- The *second* and the *third* is optional (it has default type)
 - *Second* is the container (for now, just don't think about it)
 - *Third* is the class for comparator (the class that we use to compare)
 - This one is default to less<T>

```
#include <iostream>
#include <string>
#include <queue>
using namespace std;

int main() {
    less<int> x;    // comparator that checks a < b
    greater<int> y; // checks a > b

    int a = 10;
    int b = 3;
    cout << x(a,b) << endl;    // 0
    cout << y(a,b) << endl;    // 1
}
```

Using Comparator for set and map

- To use custom class with set and map, we need to do the same thing, let set and map know how to sort the data
 - Either make default ordering (overload <) in the custom class
 - Or use custom comparator when declare
- For set, the declaration is set<T, Compare = less<T>>
- For map, the declaration is map<Key, T, Compare = less<Key>>

Assignment

- Is any of `vector<int>`, `set<int>`, `map<int, string>`, `queue<bool>`, `stack<vector<int>>` comparable?
 - For any class that is “YES”, how it is ordered?
 - For example, if `vector<int>` is comparable, how `{1, 2, 3}` is compared to `{1, 2, 3, 4}` or `{2, 3, 4}`

Answer

- `vector<int>` compare each element from the left; `{2, 3, 4} > {1, 2, 3, 4} > {1, 2, 3}`
- `set<int>` compare the maximum element () of each set, if equal then look the next max
- `map<int, string>` compare by Key set, then compare max of value set
- `queue<bool>` is not comparable
- `stack<vector<int>>` is not comparable

Summary**Data Structure Summary**

Data Structure	Pro	Cons	Remark
<code>pair<T1, T2></code>	Nothings... It just a pair of two data type		
<code>vector<T></code>	• Fast access [] • Fast append $\mathcal{O}(1)$	• Slow find $\mathcal{O}(N)$ • Slow insert, Slow Erase $\mathcal{O}(N)$	
<code>set<T></code>	• Fast find $\mathcal{O}(\log(N))$ • Item is sorted	• Slower to just append data than vector, stack, queue $\mathcal{O}(\log(N))$ • Iterate is also slow • Takes lots of memory $\mathcal{O}(\log(N))$	Require comparator
<code>map<Key, T></code>			• Associative data type • Also require comparator of Key_Type
<code>stack<T></code>	• Very fast push, pop $\mathcal{O}(1)$	• Very limited functionality but has special uses	• No iterator • Order of data coming out depends on something (stack, queue depends on WHEN it is pushed, pq depends on value)
<code>queue<T></code>			
<code>priority_queue<T></code>	• Fast get max • Fast delete max • Data is sorted • Memory efficient	• Slower to just append data than vector, stack, queue • Very limited functionality	• pq requires comparator

More Data Structure

- C++ has more data structure not really covered right now
 - `list` is a vector with faster input / erase but does not have fast access
 - `unordered_set`, `unordered_map` are set and map that the data is not sorted but is much faster
 - `deque` is a queue that can push, pop at both ends
 - `multiset`, `multimap` are set and map that allows duplicated entries

Lecture 8**Create Your Own CP::pair****Intro**

- We start writing our own data structure
 - In our own *namespace* (CP)
- We start with *pair*
 - Good introduction on writing a class

- Some C++ feature we need to use
 - const
 - pass-by-value, pass-by-ref
 - Header file

What should we write in a class

- Class name and namespace
- Member *variables* which define what data we want to store in the class
- Member *functions* which define behavior of the class and how member variable is manipulated
 - Include lots of special function such as *constructor*, *destructor*, *overloading*

CP:pair version 0.1 (minimal version)

- Templating
 - Parameter of a code
- No member functions
 - When we declare a pair, T1 and T2 must be declared as a type

```
namespace CP {
    template <typename T1, typename T2>
    class pair{
    public:
        T1 first;
        T2 second;
    };
}

int main() {
    CP::pair<int,string> p1; // In p1, T1 is int, T2 is string
    CP::pair<bool,int> p2;  // In p2, T1 is bool, T2 is int
}
```

Capabilities

- Can hold 2 pieces of data
- Can use template
- Works with operator =
- Has copy constructor
- Cannot check equal
- Cannot check less than

```
#include <iostream>
#include <string>
using namespace std;
namespace CP {
    template <typename T1, typename T2>
    class pair{
    public:
        T1 first;
        T2 second;
    };
}

int main() {
    CP::pair<int,string> p1, p2; // default ctor
    p1.first = 20; p1.second = "somchai";
    CP::pair<int,string> a(p1); // copy ctor
    p2 = p1;
```

```
    cout << p2.first << "," << p2.second << endl;
}
```

```
/*
if (p1 == p2) { // won't compile
    cout << "yes" << endl;
}
```

```
if (p1 < a) { // won't compile
    cout << "yes" << endl;
}
*/
```

CP::pair version 0.2 (comparator overload)

```
#include <iostream>
#include <string>
#include <set>
using namespace std;
namespace CP {
    template <typename T1, typename T2>
    class pair{
    public:
        T1 first;
        T2 second;

        // operator
        bool operator==(const pair<T1,T2> &other) {
            return (first == other.first && second == other.second);
        }

        bool operator<(const pair<T1,T2>& other) const { // operator< must be const
            return ((first < other.first) ||
                    (first == other.first && second < other.second));
        }
    };
}
```

```
int main() {
    CP::pair<int,string> p1, p2; // default ctor
    p1.first = 20; p1.second = "somchai";
    CP::pair<int,string> a(p1); // copy ctor
    p2 = p1;
    cout << p2.first << "," << p2.second << endl; // 20, somchai

    if (p1 == p2) {cout << "yes" << endl;} // yes
    if (p1 < a) {cout << "yes" << endl;}
    set<CP::pair<int,int>> s;
    s.insert({1,2});
    // Now we can compare and use less than (and also set, map, priority queue)
    cout << s.begin()->second << endl; // 2
}
```

Const Member

Const Parameter in Function

```
void test(int &x, const int& y) {
    x++;           // Okay; doable
    cout << y << endl; // Okay, we only read y
    for (int i=0; i<y; i++) { // Okay, too
        cout << i << endl;
    }
    y--; // ERROR: we promised NOT to change y
}
```

- Declared by putting a keyword const as a prefix
- Const parameter must not be modified inside the function
- Why? So that we know that the function does not modify the data
 - Especially when we pass-by-reference

Difference of Pass-by-reference && Pass-by-value

Pass-by-value

- The *arguments* can be either constants or variables
- Modifying *parameters* (variable inside the function) does not change the *argument's* value
- The *argument's* value is copied to the parameter
 - **SLOWER!!!** Because we have to copy

Pass-by-reference

- The *arguments* must be variables
- The *parameters* are the argument's variables
 - Modify the *parameter* also modify the *argument's* variable
- **Faster**

Const Member Function

```
class ccc {
public:
    int a,b;

    void inspect() const { // This function promises NOT to change anything
        if (a < b) cout << "yes" << endl; // Okay

        // b += 20; // <-- NOT OKAY
    }

    void mutate() { // This function might change something
        if (a < b) a += 10; // Okay
    }
};

void test2(ccc& changeable, const ccc& unchangeable) {
    changeable.inspect();
    changeable.mutate();
    unchangeable.inspect();
    unchangeable.mutate(); // ERROR: attempt to change unchangeable object
}
```

- Declared by putting a keyword const after the function declaration
- Const member function cannot modify any member data
 - Also cannot call any other function that is not const

- Why? So that we know that the function does not modify its data

Constructor & List Initialization

Custom Constructor

- In STL spec of `std::pair`, it has custom constructor called *initialization constructor*

```
namespace CP {
    template <typename T1, typename T2>
    class pair{
    public:
        T1 first;
        T2 second;

        // Custom constructor, using initialization list
        pair(const T1 &a, const T2 &b) {
            first = a;
            second = b;
        }
        // When we have a constructor, a default constructor is not auto-generated

        // Operator
        bool operator==(const pair<T1,T2> &other) {...}
        bool operator<(const pair<T1,T2>& other) {...}
    };
}

int main() {
    CP::pair<int, bool> p(10,false);
    CP::pair<string, int> q("abc",42), r("",0);

    cout << (q < r) << endl; // 0
    priority_queue<CP::pair<string,int>> pq;
    pq.push(r);
    pq.push(q);
    cout << pq.top().first << endl; // abc

    CP::pair<string, int> x(q);
    CP::pair<string, int> y = x;

    // All below cannot be compiled
    // CP::pair<string, int> w;
    // vector<CP::pair<int, int>> v(10);
}
```

Initialization List

- Instead of writing a code to assign a value to each member, we can use *initialization list*
 - A little bit shorter code
 - Also little bit faster
 - Only way to init *const* member

```
namespace CP {
    template <typename T1, typename T2>
    class pair {
    public:
        T1 first;
        T2 second;
```

```

        // custom constructor, using initialization list
        pair(const T1 &a, const T2 &b) : first(a), second(b) { }
    };
}

```

Default Constructor

- A constructor used when we simply declare an object
- Auto-generated by init all members with its default constructor
- Won't be auto-gen if we have any other constructor

```

namespace CP {
    template <typename T1, typename T2>
    class pair {
        T1 first;
        T2 second;

        // Constructor
        pair() : first(), second() { }
        pair(const T1 &a, const T2 &b) : first(a), second(b) { }
    };
}

```

Include & Header file

Include File

- Usually, our data structure (which is written as a class) will be used by several programs in several files.
 - It is better NOT TO copy our data structure code into each file
- Rather, put our code in a file and include it where it is needed
 - Better if we want to change it
 - Better compilation
- Introducing ".h" files

C++ header file (.h) and #include

- To put a content of one file into another file, we use #include "filename" keyword
- C++ will simply put the content of *filename* into where we #include it
- #include has more benefit
 - Separation of *declaration* (what it is) and *definition* (how it works)
 - Not really explored in this class
- We usually use .h for a file that we will include but that is not a rule, we can use other extension

Problem with include

a.h

```

class a {
    int m1, m2;
};

```

b.h

```

#include "a.h"

```

```

class b {
    a x;
};

```

c.h

main.cpp (expanded)

```

class a {
    int m1, m2;
};

```

```

class b {
    a x;
};

```

```

// There are multiple copies of class a
class a {
    int m1, m2;
};

```

```
#include "a.h"
```

```
class c {
    a y;
};
```

main.cpp

```
#include "b.h"
#include "c.h"
```

```
int main() {
    b b1;
    c c1;
}
```

Fix problem

a.h

```
#ifndef A_H
#define A_H
class a {
    int m1, m2;
};
#endif
```

b.h

```
#include "a.h"
```

```
class b {
    a x;
};
```

c.h

```
#include "a.h"
```

```
class c {
    a y;
};
```

```
class c {
    a y;
};
```

```
int main() {
    b b1;
    c c1;
}
```

main.cpp (expanded)

```
#ifndef A_H
#define A_H
class a {
    int m1, m2;
};
#endif

class b {
    a x;
};

// class a here is taken out of
// compilation because A_H is defined
#ifndef A_H
// #define A_H
// class a {
//     int m1, m2;
// };
#endif

class c {
    a y;
};

int main() {
    b b1;
    c c1;
}
```

Summary

Major

- **Templating**: allow user to write a code that works with different data type
- **Constructor**: a function called when we create a variable
 - Default constructor
- **Operator overloading**: for less-than and equality
- pass-by-ref vs pass-by-value

Minor

- Header file
- const
- List initialization

Exercise (no grader)

1. Modify operator< so that it compare *second* before *first*
2. Modify operator< so that when we call sort(v.begin(), v.end()) where w is a vector of our pair, it is sorted from *Max* to *Min*
3. Write operator!= and operator>=

Final version CP.h

```
#ifndef _CP_PAIR_INCLUDED_
#define _CP_PAIR_INCLUDED_

namespace CP {
    template <typename T1, typename T2>
    class pair {
    public:
        T1 first;
        T2 second;

        pair() : first(), second() {}

        pair(const T1 &a, const T2 &b) : first(a), second(b) { }

        bool operator==(const pair<T1,T2> &other) {
            return (first == other.first && second == other.second);
        }

        // 1.
        bool operator<(const pair<T1,T2>& other) const {
            return ((second < other.second) ||
                    (second == other.second && first < other.first));
        }

        // 2.
        bool operator<(const pair<T1,T2>& other) const {
            return ((first > other.first) ||
                    (first == other.first && second > other.second));
        }

        // 3.
        bool operator!=(const pair<T1,T2>& other) const {
            return !(*this == other);
        }

        bool operator>=(const pair<T1,T2>& other) const {
            return !(*this < other);
        }

    };
}
#endif
```

Lecture 9

CP::vector

Our first “real” data structure

Intro

- Now we will create more complex data structure `CP::vector`
- It can store variable length array
 - Implemented as a dynamic array
- Can be accessed by operator `[]`
 - Additional operator to be overloaded
- We also have to create our own iterator
 - Implemented as a pointer

Key Idea

- Vector stored 3 things (3 member data)
 - `mData`: A dynamic array, large enough space to store current data and might have reserved space
 - `mSize`: Number of data stored
 - `mCap`: Size of the dynamic array (maybe large than `mSize`)
- If the dynamic array is full and more data is being added, we create a new dynamic array and relocate data to the new array
 - This is called **expand**
 - Each **expansion** takes very long time
- Dilemma
 - Large reserve = less often relocation but use more memory
 - Small reserve = more frequent relocation but less memory

Example

```
mSize  mCap      mData
  4      5    [10, 3, 1, 5, ]
```

```
push_back(9)
```

```
  5      5    [10, 3, 1, 5, 9]
```

```
push_back(4)
```

```
  6     10    [10, 3, 1, 5, 9, 4, , , , ]
```

How much reserve should we have?

- Whenever we need to relocate, we **double** the capacity that we currently have
- If we start with a vector with zero size and continuously add data one by one, for example by `push_back`
 - Each expansion will take time **equal** to **the number of data** when we relocate (this is very slow)
- By doubling the size every time we expand, we can show that on average, **each addition of a data** (such as `push_back`, `insert`) **takes constant time!!!**

Pointer

How to implement a dynamic array (and also iterator)

Pointer & Memory

- Each variable is some block in computer memory
 - Programming language just map our **variable name** to that **block of memory**
 - Programming language works with the address of that block
- Pointer variable is a variable that stor **address of memory**

- Pointer needs type i.e., address of int is not the same as address of bool
- We can use operator & to ask for the **address** of a **variable**
- We can use operator * to ask for the **data** of an **address**

Example

```
int x, y;    // this is normal variable x and y
int *a;     // this is int pointer variable a
int *b;     // another int pointer

x = 10;     // say x is at address 3267
a = &x;     // a points to x
b = a;      // b also points to x
*b = 30;    // change the address value to 30
y = *b;     // set value of y to 30 (hard copy)

cout << &x << endl;    // 0x7ffee22885ac
cout << &y << endl;    // 0x7ffee22885a8 +4
cout << &a << endl;    // 0x7ffee22885a0 +8
cout << &b << endl;    // 0x7ffee2288598 +8
cout << sizeof(int) << endl;    // 4 bytes
cout << sizeof(*int) << endl;    // 8 bytes
```

Pointer Arithmetic

- Pointer can be added, subtracted by integer
 - It **moves the address by the size of the type** of the pointer
 - For example, when X is an int (which is 4 bytes) X + 10 result in an address 40 bytes away from X
- Two pointers of the same type can be subtracted
 - The result is the address **difference divided by size of the type** of the pointer

```
int main() {
    bool x, y, z;
    x = 1; y = 2; z = 3;
    bool *a, *b;

    a = &x;
    b = a+2;

    cout << "&x = " << &x << endl;    // &x = 0x6afed4
    cout << "&y = " << &y << endl;    // &y = 0x6afed8
    cout << "&z = " << &z << endl;    // &z = 0x6afedc
    cout << " a = " << a << endl;    // a = 0x6afed4
    cout << " b = " << b << endl;    // b = 0x6afedc
    cout << b-a << endl;            // 2
}
```

Dynamic Array

- **Dynamic Array** variable of type T is a **pointer** to the **starting address** of consecutive block of type T
- Let A be a dynamic array of int
 - A[x] refer to the x^{th} block starting from A
- Static array works in the same way, that's why accessing A[x] is very fast for an array
 - It just refers to the address A[x] is $*(A + x * \text{sizeof}(T))$

new and delete operator

- For a datatype T, new T *allocates* a block with a size of T and then call a *constructor* of T, return the address of that memory

- For a datatype T, new T[n] allocates n blocks of T and then call a *constructor* of T in each block, return the address of the first block
 - For example, we use new int [10] to create a dynamic int array of 10 elements
- For a pointer X, delete X calls the *destructor* and then *de-allocates* memory pointed by X
- For a dynamic array X, delete [] calls the *destructor* of all blocks in the dynamic array and *de-allocates* the memory allocated by X

Example

```
class test {
public:
    // constructor
    test() : data() {cout << "created" << endl;}
    // destructor
    ~test() {cout << data << " destroyed " << endl;}
    int data;
};

int main() {
    test *a, *b;    // pointers of test

    a = new test;    // created new test pointed by a
    a->data = 10;    // (*a).data = 10
    cout << a->data << endl;    // 10
    delete a;        // destroyed

    b = new test[4]; // created 4x
    b[0].data = 10;
    b[1].data = 20;
    b[2].data = 30;
    b[3].data = 40;
    delete [] b;     // deleted 4x
}
```

Memory Leak

- For everything, this is created by new, we must call delete on it
- If you do not, that memory is not deleted until all memory is used up

```
#include <iostream>
using namespace std;

void leaked() {
    int *a;
    a = new int[2000];
}

int main() {
    for (int i=0; i<1000000; i++) {
        int *a;
        cout << i << endl;
        leaked();
    }
}

// terminate called after throwing an instance of 'std::bad_alloc'
```

Smart Pointer (NOT A SUBJECT OF THIS COURSE)

- A better way is to use C++ smart pointer shared_ptr(T)
- Smart pointer is a pointer that can delete itself when it go out of scope

- Similar concept to [Java Garbage Collection](#)
- Still possible to have memory leak

vector.h

Version 0.1

- Start with vector that can do push_back, pop_back, and []
- Also with custom constructor

```
namespace CP {
template <typename T>
class vector {
protected:
    T *mData;
    size_t mCap;
    size_t mSize;

    void rangeCheck(int n) {...}
    void expand(size_t capacity) {...}
    void ensureCapacity(size_t capacity) {...}
public:
    vector() {...}
    vector(size_t capacity) {...}
    ~vector() {...}
    // access
    T& at(int index) {...}
    T& operator[](int index) {...}
    // modifier
    void push_back(const T& element) {...}
    void pop_back() {...}
};
}
```

Basic Constructor

```
template <typename T>
class vector {
protected:
    T *mData;
    size_t mCap;
    size_t mSize;

public:
    vector() {
        int cap = 1;
        mData = new T[cap]();
        mCap = cap;
        mSize = 0;
    }

    vector(size_t cap) {
        mData = new T[cap]();
        mCap = cap;
        mSize = cap;
    }
}
```

```
vector<int> v;
```

```
vector<int> w(5);
```

mSize	mCap	mData		mSize	mCap	mData
0	1	[]		5	5	[0,0,0,0,0]

Destructor

- Since we new mData, we have to delete it
 - Or face a memory leak problem

```

~vector() {
    delete [] mData;
}
};

```

Object Life Cycle

- Normal object
 - Object is created (constructor called) when declared
 - Object is destroyed (destructor called) when go out of scope
- Object created by new (both new T or new T[]) Object is created when new Object is destroyed when delete

```

class test {
public:
    // constructor
    test() : data() {cout << "created" << endl;}
    // destructor
    ~test() {cout << data << " destroyed " << endl;}
    int data;
};

int main() {
    cout << "-- Life cycle --" << endl;
    cout << "- normal cycle -" << endl;
    test u;
    u.data = 99;
    for (int i=0; i<5; i++) {
        test t;
        t.data = i*10;
    }
}

```

Output

```

-- Life cycle --
- normal cycle -
created      <-- u
created
0 destroyed
created
10 destroyed
created
20 destroyed
created
30 destroyed
created
40 destroyed
99 destroyed <-- u

```

Accessing Data

- The return type is T& which is a reference
- Same deal as pass-by-reference, this is called **return-by-reference**
 - So we can do `v[i] = 30` or `v[i]++`
- What is returned is actually that variable
- Also notice the difference between `at()` and `operator[]`

```
template <typename T>
class vector {
protected:
    T *mData;
    size_t mCap;
    size_t mSize;

    void rangeCheck(int n) {
        if (n < 0 || (size_t)n >= mSize) {
            throw std::out_of_range("index out of range");
        }
    }

public:
    T& at(int index) {
        rangeCheck(index);
        return mData[index];
    }

    T& operator[](int index) {
        return mData[index]; // return the variable
    }
};
```

Add, remove data

- `push_back` first check if we have reserved space
 - If not, we expand
- Then, the data is put to `mData[mSize]`
- Removing Data is done by just reduce the size

```
template <typename T>
class vector {
protected:
    T *mData;
    size_t mCap;
    size_t mSize;
    void expand(size_t capacity) {
        T *arr = new T[capacity](); // create a new dynamic array
        for (size_t i = 0; i < mSize; i++) {
            arr[i] = mData[i]; // move all data
        }
        delete [] mData;
        mData = arr; // delete old data and point to new one
        mCap = capacity;
    }

    void ensureCapacity(size_t capacity) {
        if (capacity > mCap) {
            size_t s = (capacity > 2 * mCap) ? capacity : 2 * mCap; // double the size
            expand(s);
        }
    }
};
```

```

    }
}
public:
    void push_back(const T& element) {
        ensureCapacity(mSize+1);
        mData[mSize++] = element; // add size and put element
    }
    void pop_back() {
        mSize--;
    }
};

```

Vector Constructors

Problem of vo.1

- Copy constructor and assignment operator is incorrect
 - It is auto generate to copy all variables (but not the data it points to)
- Rule of three in c++
 - Consider destructor, copy constructor, assignment operator
 - If any of them is written in the code, we mostly need all of them
- Since c++11, it's rule of four an a half

```

int main() {
    CP::vector<int> w(5);

    for (int i=0; i<5; i++) w[i] = i*10;
    CP::vector<int> x(w); // this creates shallow copy of w
    CP::vector<int> y = w;
    x[3] = -1; // changes both w and y
    cout << y[3] << endl; // -1
    cout << w[3] << endl; // -1
}

```

vo.2, add small access functions

- empty and size also exists in other data structure
- size_t is non-negative integer type

```

bool empty() const {
    return mSize == 0;
}

size_t size() const {
    return mSize;
}

size_t capacity() const {
    return mCap;
}

```

vo.2 adding copy constructor & assignment operator

```

// copy constructor
vector(const vector<T>& a) {
    mData = new T[a.capacity()]();
    mCap = a.capacity(); // copies only value
    mSize = a.size();
    for (size_t i=0; i<a.size(); i++) {
        mData[i] = a[i];
    }
}

```

```

    }
}

// copy assignment operator
vector<T>& operator=(vector<T> &other) {
    // protect against self-destruct
    if (mData != other.mData) {
        // delete current data
        delete [] mData;
        // copy the new data
        mData = new T[other.capacity()]();
        mCap = other.capacity();
        mSize = other.size();
        for (size_t i=0; i<a.size(); i++) {
            mData[i] = a[i];
        }
    }
}

```

Copy-and-swap

- Utilize written copy-constructor and destructor
- Shorter code

```

// copy assignment operator using copy-and-swap idiom
vector<T>& operator=(vector<T> other) { // notice the pass-by-value!!!
    // other is copy-constructed which will be destruct at the end of this scope
    // we swap the content of this class to the other class and let it be destructed
    using std::swap;
    swap(this->mSize, other.mSize);
    swap(this->mCap, other.mCap);
    swap(this->mData, other.mData);
    return *this;
}

```

Iterator, Insert, Erase, & Analysis

vo.3 Iterator and typedef keyword

```

template <typename T>
class vector {

protected:
    T *mData;
    size_t mCap;
    size_t mSize;
protected:
    typedef T* iterator; // let iterator be type name of T pointer

    // iterator
    iterator begin() {
        return &mData[0];
    }

    iterator end() {
        return begin()+mSize;
    }
}

```

- See that pointer works just like how `std::vector::iterator` works
- In fact, iterator is actually a pointer
- `typedef` keyword allows us to map a type name
 - `CP::vector<int>::iterator` is `int*`
 - `CP::vector<bool>::iterator` is `bool*`

insert

- `push_back` actually call `insert(end(), element)`
- Question: why we need `pos`?

```
iterator insert(iterator it, const T& element) {
    size_t pos = it - begin();
    ensureCapacity(mSize+1);
    for (size_t i = mSize; i > pos; i--) {
        mData[i] = mData[i-1];
    }
    mData[pos] = element;
    mSize++;
    return begin()+pos;
}

void push_back(const T& element) {
    insert(end(), element);
}
```

erase

- See that both `insert` and `erase` also change `mSize`

```
void erase(iterator it) {
    while((it+1)!=end()) {
        *it = *(it+1);
        it++;
    }
    mSize--;
}
```

Exercise

- Read the following function and see how it works in `vector.h`
 - `resize`, `clear`
 - non-stl function
 - `insert_by_pos`
 - `erase_by_pos`
 - `erase_by_value`
 - `contains`
 - `index_of`
- Read in [here](#)

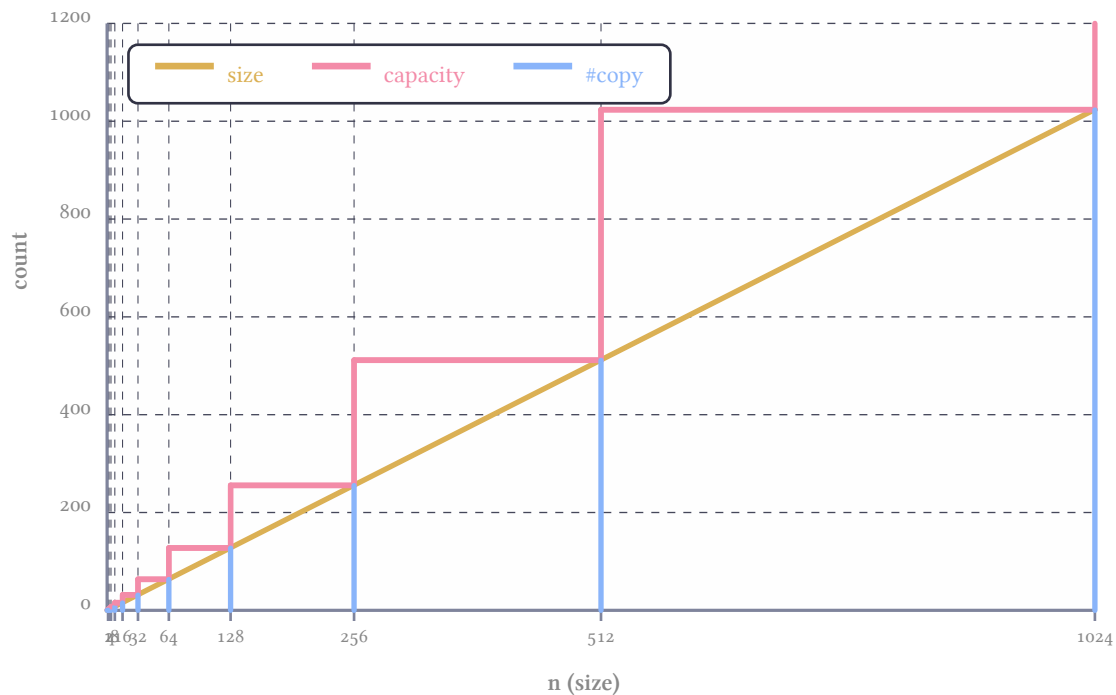
Will do this part later

Analysis of how many data is copied by `push_back`

- When full, `push_back` have to move all data to a new dynamic array
- `ensureCapacity` double the size

Size and Capa & Copy Count

- How much copy we need?



Lecture 10

Stack

Intro

- Now we will create less complex data structure `CP::stack`
- Just like a vector without iterator, insert, erase, resize, at end operator[]
 - Add `top()` which is just a shorthand of looking at the last element
- That's it, really

Key Idea

- The data is stored in the same way as a vector
 - The first element of `mData` is the bottom of stack while the last element is the top of the stack
- We just take `vector.h` and remove unnecessary function

```

| | stack
| |
| A | mSize mCap mData
| X | 4 5 [A, B, X, A]
| B |
| A |
|__|

```

stack.h

```

namespace CP {
    template <typename T>
    class stack {
    protected:
        T *mData;
        size_t mCap;
        size_t mSize;
        void expand(size_t capacity) {...}
    };
}

```

```

    void ensureCapacity(size_t capacity) {...}
public:
    // constructor
    stack(const stack<T>& a) {...}
    stack() {...}
    stack<T>& operator= {...}
    ~stack() {...}
    // capacity operation
    bool empty() const {...}
    size_t size() const {...}
    // access
    const T& top() const {
        return mData[mSize-1];
    }
    // modifier
    void push(const T& operator) {...} // This is push_back
    void pop() {...} // This is pop_back
};
}

```

Speed of each operation

- All read operation always take constant time
 - `size()`, `top()` simply return something that is directly accessible
- All modify operation also take constant time
 - `push()` is constant on average (same as `push_back` of vector)
 - `pop()` is always constant

Stack by Vector

- Instead of writing our own function, there is another way to write a stack
- We simply use `vector` as our sole data member
- Benefit: `code reuse`
- Drawback: `almost none` except that we need one more layer of function call

```

namespace CP {
    template <typename T>
    class stack {
    protected:
        vector<T> v;
    public:
        // default constructor
        stack() : v() { }
        // capacity function
        bool empty() const { return v.empty(); }
        size_t size() const { return v.size(); }
        // access
        const T& top() const { return v.back(); }
        // modifier
        void push(const T& element) { v.push_back(element); }
        void pop() { v.pop_back(); }
    };
}

```

Lecture 11

CP::queue

Will the circle be unbroken?

Intro

- Queue, unlike stack, require more sophisticated technique to achieve fast performance
- We start by writing a simple class that just work (slowly)
- Then we try to improve it

Key Idea

- Just like stack, we will use the same format as vector, using dynamic array to store data
- However we have to somehow manage how we works with `front()` and `back()` of the queue

vo.1 simple implementation of the queue

- To illustrate this idea, we will use a **vector** as our data member
- `push(e)` is simply `v.push_back(e)`, this is fast
- `front()` is `v[0]`, `back()` is `v[v.size()-1]`, this is also fast
- `pop()` is `v.erase(v.begin())`, this is slow (always proportional to `v.size()`)
 - Unlike `std::queue` which has very fast `pop()`

```
namespace CP {
    template <typename T>
    class queue {
    protected:
        std::vector<T> v;
    public:
        // default constructor
        queue() : v() { }
        // capacity function
        bool empty() const { return v.empty(); }
        size_t size() const { return v.size(); }
        // access
        const T& front() const { return v[0]; }
        const T& back() const { return v[v.size()-1]; }
        // modifier
        void push(const T& element) { v.push_back(element); }
        void pop() { v.erase(v.begin()); }
    };
}
```

vo.1 example

```
CP::queue<int> q;      q  v
                        mSize mCap mData
                        0    1    ----> [ ]

q.push(10);            q  v
                        mSize mCap mData
                        1    1    ----> [10]

q.push(20);            q  v
                        mSize mCap mData
                        2    2    ----> [10, 20]

q.push(30);            q  v
                        mSize mCap mData
                        3    4    ----> [10, 20, 30, ]

q.pop();               q  v
                        /    /
```

```

mSize  mCap  mData    /    /
  2      4      ----> [20, 30, , ]

```

vo.2 faster queue

- Add more data member mFront, initialized as 0
- push(e) is simply v.push_back(e), this is fast
- front() is v[mFront], back() is v[v.size()-1], this is also fast
- pop() is mFront++, this is fast
 - However, we don't really remove anything when pop

```
#include <vector>
```

```

namespace CP {
    template <typename T>
    class queue {
    protected:
        std::vector<T> v;
        int mFront;
    public:
        // constructor
        queue() : v(), mFront() {}
        // capacity function
        bool empty() const { return v.empty(); }
        size_t size() const { return v.size() - mFront; }
        // access
        const T& front() const { return v[mFront]; }
        const T& back() { return v[v.size()-1]; }
        // modifier
        void push(const T& element) { v.push_back(element); }
        void pop() { mFront++; }
    };
}

```

vo.2 example

```

CP::queue<int> q;      q      v
                        mFront mSize mCap mData
                        0      0      1      ----> [ ]

q.push(10);            q      v
                        mFront mSize mCap mData
                        0      1      1      ----> [10]

q.push(20);            q      v
                        mFront mSize mCap mData
                        0      2      2      ----> [10, 20]

q.push(30);            q      v
                        mFront mSize mCap mData
                        0      3      4      ----> [10, 20, 30, ]

q.pop();               q      v
                        mFront mSize mCap mData
                        1      3      4      ----> [10, 20, 30, ]

```

Problem with vo.2

- Fast but **use too many space**
- Queue grows according to **how many time push is called**
 - regardless of how many pop is called
- The data stored in the vector can be **much larger** than the actual data in the queue
- Does not really work in real world

```
for (int i=0; i<1000000; i++) {
    q.push(i);
    q.pop();
}
std::cout << q.size() << std::endl;
```

Circular Queue

Final Idea

mFront	mSize	mCap	mData	*
2	2	4	---->	[, , 30, 40]
q.push(50);				
2	3	4	---->	[50, , 30, 40]
q.push(60);				
2	4	4	---->	[50, 60, 30, 40]
q.pop();				
3	3	4	---->	[50, 60, , 40]
q.push(99);				
3	4	4	---->	[50, 60, 99, 40]
q.push(1);				
0	5	4	---->	[40, 50, 60, 99, 1, , ,]

- We take vo.2 and **reuse** the area at the beginning of mData
 - Expand when necessary
 - Re-arrange when expand

Circular Queue

- We can think of mData to be circular
 - End of the last element of the mData is connected to the first element
- Consider i^{th} element
 - the next element is $(i+1) \% \text{mCap}$
 - The previous element is $(i-1+\text{mCap}) \% \text{mCap}$
 - Next k element is $(i+k) \% \text{mCap}$

Circular Queue Implementation

queue.h

```
namespace CP {
    template <typename T>
    class queue {
    protected:
        T *mData;
        size_t mCap;
        size_t mSize;
        size_t mFront;
        void expand(size_t capacity) {...}
        void ensureCapacity(size_t capacity) {...}
    public:
        // constructor - almost the same but have to take care of mFront
        queue(const queue<T>& a) {...}
        queue() {...}
    };
}
```

```

    queue<T>& operator=(queue<T> other) {...}
    ~queue() {...}
    // capacity function - same as vector
    bool empty() const {...}
    size_t size() const {...}
    // access - circular queue implementation
    const T& front() const {...}
    const T& back() const {...}
    // modifier
    void push(const T& element) {...}
    void pop() {...}
};
}

```

Ctor, Dtor, copy

```

template <typename T>
class queue {
protected:
    T *mData;  size_t mCap;  size_t mSize;  size_t mFront;
public:
    // default constructor
    queue() : mData(new T[1]()), mCap(1),
             mSize(0), mFront(0) { }
    // copy constructor
    queue(const queue<T>& a) : mData(new T[a.mCap]()), mCap(a.mCap),
                             mSize(a.mSize), mFront(a.mFront) {
        for (size_t i = 0; i < a.mCap; i++) {
            mData[i] = a.mData[i];
        }
    }
    // copy assignment operator
    queue<T>& operator=(queue<T> other) {
        using std::swap;
        swap(mSize, other.mSize);
        swap(mCap, other.mCap);
        swap(mData, other.mData);
        swap(mFront, other.mFront);
        return *this;
    }
    ~queue() {
        delete [] mData;
    }
};

```

front(), back(), pop()

```

template <typename T>
class queue {
protected:
    T *mData;
    size_t mCap;
    size_t mSize;
    size_t mFront;
public:
    // access
    const T& front() const {
        return mData[mFront];
    }
};

```

```

    }
    const T& back() const {
        return mData[(mFront + mSize - 1) % mCap];
    }
    // modify
    void pop() {
        mFront = (mFront + 1) % mCap;
        mSize--;
    }
};

```

- back = mFront + mSize - 1
 - Also circular (by % mCap)
- pop = move mFront by 1
 - Also circular
 - Also change size

push, expand

- push add data to (mFront + mSize) % mCap
 - The space just after back()
- Expand re-pack the mData so that mFront is 0
- ensureCapacity is the same

```

template <typename T>
class queue {
protected:
    T *mData;
    size_t mCap;
    size_t mSize;
    size_t mFront;
    void expand(size_t capacity) {
        T *arr = new T[capacity]();
        for (size_t i = 0; i < mSize; i++) {
            arr[i] = mData[(mFront + i) % mCap];
        }
        delete [] mData;
        mData = arr;
        mCap = capacity;
        mFront = 0;
    }
    void ensureCapacity(size_t capacity) {
        if (capacity > mCap) {
            size_t s = (capacity > 2 * mCap) ? capacity : 2 * mCap;
            expand(s);
        }
    }
public:
    void push(const T& element) {
        ensureCapacity(mSize+1);
        mData[(mFront + mSize) % mCap] = element;
        mSize++;
    }
};

```

Analysis

- All access, modification is fast (constant time)

- Space is re-used
 - It is not shrunk when mSize reduce
 - Space is not more than double of maximum mSize during its lifetime

Queue Exercise

- We implement circular queue by maintain mFront and use circular logic ($\% \text{ mCap}$) to calculate the position of back of the queue
 - Can we maintain mBack instead?
 - Can we maintain both mFront and mBack but not mSize?
- How about mCap, if we know mFront, mSize, mBack, can we calculate mCap?

mFront	mSize	mBack	front()	back()	size()
YES	YES	No	$v[\text{mFront}]$	$v[(\text{mFront} + \text{mSize}) \% \text{ mCap}]$	$\text{mSize}()$
No	YES	YES	????	$v[\text{mBack}]$	mSize
YES	No	YES	$v[\text{mFront}]$	$v[\text{mBack}]$	????

Answer

- Use $\text{front}() = v[(\text{mCap} + \text{mBack} - \text{mSize}) \% \text{ mCap}]$
- Use $\text{size}() = (\text{mCap} + \text{mBack} - \text{mFront}) \% \text{ mCap}$, but this will break when $\text{mBack} == \text{mFront}$ because it can't determine whether the queue is empty or full.
- Impossible, mCap can be scaled to any size larger than the current elements.

Now, meet deque

- Can you modify queue to include
 - $\text{push_front}()$, add to the front of the queue
 - $\text{pop_back}()$, remove from back of the queue
- All operation should still be constant time

Answer

```
void push_front(const T& element) {
    ensureCapacity(mSize+1);
    mFront = (mCap + mFront - 1) % mCap;
    mData[mFront] = element;
    mSize++;
}

void pop_back() {
    mSize--;
}
```

Lecture 12

Complexity Analysis

How fast is our code?

Overview

- Introducing a **measurement** of efficiency of a program
- Why we need measurement
- How we measure
 - How to analyze our code to get a measurement
- What is measurement
 - **Asymtotic Notation**

Key Idea

- We need a useful way to describe efficiency of our code
 - Useful = able to be **easily use to predict** how much resource (time / memory) that our program will need
 - Useful = **not overly complex** in analysis
 - Need to balance between usefulness and complexity
- Ultimately, we introduce a **class of efficiency** that says how our code use resource with respect to size of data
 - Focus on **on growth of resource usage**

Preview

```
int find_max(vector<int> v) {
    int m = v[0];
    for (size_t i = 0; i < v.size(); i++)
        if (v[i] > m)
            m = v[i];
    return m;
}
```

- This code takes time **directly proportional** to **the size of the data**
 - Size N takes time T
 - Size $5N$ should take time $5T$

```
int count_pair_sum(vector<int> v, int k) {
    int count = 0;
    for (size_t i = 0; i < v.size(); i++)
        for (size_t j = 0; j < v.size(); j++)
            if (i != j && v[i] + v[j] == k)
                count++;
    return count/2;
}
```

- This code takes time **directly proportional** to **the square of the size of the data**
 - Size N takes time T
 - Size $5N$ should take time $25T$

Why don't we use real world clock?

- Ultimately, we want to know **how long our program takes** to do each operation
 - Use in design, how much resource we need
 - Help use **choose appropriate data structure**
- **Real world clock** measurement **is possible** but has **many drawback**
 - System dependency
 - Too complex (we have to build our system)
 - Too specific

Dependency of System

- Same program in different system = different time
 - CPU
 - RAM
 - Compiler
 - Operating parameter
 - Heat? Other running program?

How to measure

- Counting instruction
 - Depend on code only
- Dependency on size of data
 - Focus on large data

```
int count_pair_sum(vector<int> v, int k) {
    int count = 0;
    for (size_t i = 0; i < v.size(); i++)
        for (size_t j = 0; j < v.size(); j++)
            if (i != j && v[i] + v[j] == k)
                count++;
    return count/2;
}
```

// 1
 // $2 + n + n$ ($n = v.size()$)
 // $(2 + n + n) * n$
 // $2 * n * n$
 // $1 * ????$ ($\leq (d)$)
 // 1

```
}
```

```
// Total = 1 + 2+n+n + (2+n+n)n + 2n^2 + n^2 + 1
//          = 4 + 4n + 5n^2
```

Time per instruction

- In reality, different CPU instructions use different time
- Same instruction but different CPU also use different number of cycle
- **However, we just ignore it**
 - For now

Focusing on large data

- In many cases, the size of the data we are working with will affect the time our code use
- Large data usually mean longer time
- What matter is when the data is large

Growth rate simplifies analysis

```
int count_pair_sum(vector<int> v, int k) {
    int count = 0;
    for (size_t i = 0; i < v.size(); i++)
        for (size_t j = i+1; j < v.size(); j++)
            if (v[i] + v[j] == k)
                count++;
    return count;
}
```

// i=0: 1 + n-0 + n-1
 // i=1: 1 + n-1 + n-2
 // <-- i=2: 1 + n-2 + n-3
 // . . .
 // i=n-1: 1 + 1 + 0
 // sum = $\Sigma(1+2n-2i-1) = n^2 + n$

```
// Total = 1 + 2+n+n + n^2+n + n^2 + n^2 + 1
//          = 4 + 3n + 3n^2
```

Small Detail

n	$5n^2 + 4n + 4$		$3n^2 + 3n + 4$		n^2	
	raw	growth	raw	growth	raw	growth
10	544		334		100	
20	2084	3.830 88	1264	3.784 43	400	4
40	8164	3.917 47	4924	3.895 57	1600	4
80	32 324	3.959 33	19 444	3.948 82	6400	4
160	128 644	3.979 83	77 284	3.9747	25 600	4
320	513 284	3.989 96	308 164	3.987 42	102 400	4
640	2 050 564	3.994 99	1 230 724	3.993 73	409 600	4
1280	8 197 124	3.9975	4 919 044	3.996 87	1 638 400	4
2560	32 778 244	3.998 75	19 668 484	3.998 44	6 553 600	4
5120	1.31×10^8	3.999 37	78 658 564	3.999 22	26 214 400	4
10 240	5.24×10^8	3.999 69	3.15×10^8	3.999 61	1.05×10^8	4
20 480	2.1×10^9	3.999 84	1.26×10^9	3.9998	4.19×10^8	4

When counting instruction, it is usually OK to focus on **most executed line**

Measurement by Growth Rate

What?

Why?

- Growth rate = how much resource usage growth with respect to change of input
 - Resource usage = number of instruction used
 - Input = size of data
- Emphasizes long term trend
- System independent
 - The result can be used to predict behavior on any system
- Focus on change of resource usage with respect to size of input
- Can regard small detail
 - Simple to calculate
 - Applicable in real world

Asymtotic Notation

Classification of growth rate

Overview

- Formally, it is a **set of function** having the **growth rate** related to something
- The definition focus **on growth of the function** while **disregard small detail**
- Also provide some workaround on dependency of value of input

What is?

- A kind notation written as $O(f(n))$
 - O can be one of $\mathcal{O}, \Theta, \Omega, \sigma, \omega$
 - $f(n)$ is some expression
- Example $\mathcal{O}(n)$ or $\Theta(n^2 + 3)$ or $\omega(n^2 \log(n))$
- Usage
 - “This code is $\mathcal{O}(n)$ ” (read as Big-Oh of n)
 - “This function takes time in $\Theta(\log(n))$ ” (read as Big-theta of $\log n$)
 - “Time complexity of this program is $\mathcal{O}(n^2)$ ”

Meaning

- “A is $\Theta(f(x))$ ” means the **growth rate of A** is **equal** to the **growth rate of $f(x)$**
- “B is $\mathcal{O}(f(x))$ ” means the **growth rate of B** is **less than or equal** to the **growth rate of $f(x)$**
- For Ω, σ, ω , (**Big-Omega**, **little-oh**, **little-omega**), we won’t use it for now but the meaning is similar (which are **more than or equal**, **less than**, **more than**, respectively)
- Conventionally, we usually use N for the size of the data

Usage

- Let $f(n)$ be the number of instruction needed by **code A** when the **size of data is n**
- We will calculate asymptotic notation that $f(n)$ is a member of
 - Find $g(n)$ such that $f(n)$ is $\mathcal{O}(g(n))$ or $\Theta(g(n))$ (or $\Omega(g(n))$ or ...)
- Let’s say we have analyze that $f(n)$ is $\mathcal{O}(g(n))$
 - We now understand that the growth rate of instruction required by n grows slower or the same as how $g(n)$ grow

Comparing growth rate of $f(n)$ and $g(n)$

- The relation of growth rate of $f(n)$ and $g(n)$ depends on the value of $f(n)/g(n)$ when $n \rightarrow \infty$

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{f(n)}{g(n)} = \begin{cases} 0 & \text{if } f(n) \text{ grows slower than } g(n) \\ c & \text{if } f(n) \text{ grows similarly to } g(n) \\ \infty & \text{if } f(n) \text{ grows faster than } g(n) \end{cases}$$

Example

- $f(n) = 4 + 3n + 4n^2$
- $g(n) = n^2$

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{4n^2 + 3n + 4}{n^2} = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \left(4 + \frac{3}{n} + \frac{4}{n^2} \right) = 4$$

- Hence $f(n)$ grows similarly to $g(n)$
 - Therefore, $f(n) = \Theta(n^2)$

Another Example

- $f(n) = 0.00005n^2$
- $g(n) = 100000n$

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{0.00005n^2}{100000n} = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} 10^{-10}n = \infty$$

- Hence $f(n)$ grows faster than $g(n)$ (also means $g(n)$ grows slower than $f(n)$)
 - Therefore $g(n) = \mathcal{O}(n^2)$
 - and $f(n) = \Omega(100000n)$

Dependency on the value of input

- Consider `vector::insert(iterator it, T value)`
- The time it takes depends on both the size of the vector and the value of it
 - Larger size $\rightarrow$ more time
 - Closer to `end()` $\rightarrow$ less time

Big-O describes upper bound

- `vector::insert` is $\mathcal{O}(n)$
 - Its growth rate does not exceed n
 - There are cases that it may grow less than n (insert at `end()`)
- This is very useful in real world
 - Knowing maximum load
 - Not overly complex in analysis

Big-O Example

- Find is $\mathcal{O}(n)$
 - At worse, it can't find value and a & b points to `begin()` & `end()`
 - This case, find growth rate is n
 - At best, it always find value at the first position (a)
 - This case, find growth as 1

```
bool find(iterator a, iterator b, T value) {
    while (a < b) {
        if (*a == value)
            return true;
        a++;
    }
    return false;
}
```

L'Hôpital's Rule

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{f(x)}{g(x)} = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{f'(x)}{g'(x)}$$

If $f(x), g(x)$ must be diffable, $g(x)$ is non-zero, $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f'/g'$ exists

- Can help
- $F(n) = \log n$
- $g(n) = n^{0.5}$

$$\begin{aligned}
\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\log(n)}{\sqrt{n}} &= \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\ln(n)}{\ln(10)\sqrt{n}} \\
&= \frac{1}{\ln(10)} \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\ln(n)}{\sqrt{n}} \\
&= \frac{1}{\ln(10)} \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\frac{1}{n}}{\frac{1}{2\sqrt{n}}} \\
&= \frac{1}{\ln(10)} \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{2}{\sqrt{n}} \\
&= 0
\end{aligned}$$

Exercise

- $f(n) = \lg^c n$
- $g(n) = n^k$
- We know that $c > 0, k > 0$
- Does $f(n)$ grow slower than $g(n)$?

Will do this part later

Big Theta**Big-Theta is tight bound**

- `std::count` always go through entire array
- Regardless of the value in the array, it always perform `if (*first == value)`

```

size_t count(iterator first, iterator last, const T& value) {
    size_t ret = 0;           // 1
    for (; first != last; ++first) { // n + n
        if (*first == value)    // 1 * n
            ret++;              // 1 * ??? ( <= (d) )
    }
    return ret;               // 1
}

```

```

// Total = 1 + n+n + 1*n + 1*n + 1
//         = 2 + 4n

```

More Example

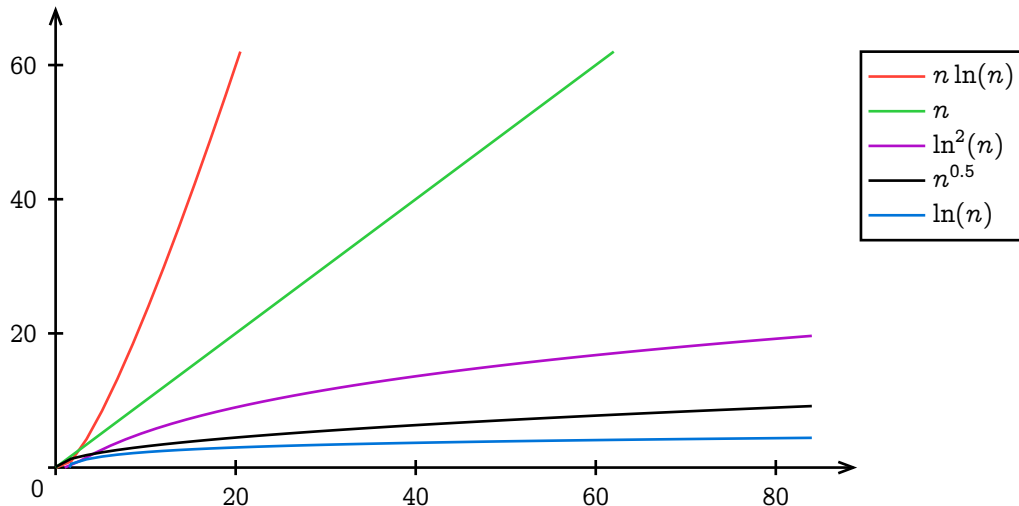
$\Theta(1)$	$\Theta(n)$	$\Theta(n^2)$
$f(n) = 5$	$f(n) = n$	$f(n) = n^2$
$f(n) = 0$	$f(n) = n + 3$	$f(n) = \binom{n}{2} = \frac{n(n-1)}{2}$
$f(n) = c$	$f(n) = \frac{n}{1200} + 86$	$f(n) = 400n^2 + an + b$
	$f(n) = 40000000n$	

Observation: multiplicative and addition constants in $f(n)$ can usually be ignored, since it will be disregarded by $\lim$, Degree cannot.

Well known growth rate class

$\Theta(1)$	Constant
$\Theta(\log(n))$	Logarithm
$\Theta(\log^c(n)), c \geq 1$	Polylogarithm
$\Theta(n^a), 0 < a < 1$	Sublinear

$\Theta(n)$	Linear
$\Theta(n \log(n))$	Linearithmic
$\Theta(n^2)$	Quadratic
$\Theta(n^c), c \geq 1$	Polynomial
$\Theta(c^n), c > 1$	Exponential
$\Theta(n!)$	Factorial



$\ln^2(n)$ grows slower than $n^{0.5}$. At around $n = 56000$, $\ln^2(n)$ is less than $n^{0.5}$.
 x^4 grows slower than 2^n . At around $n = 16$, x^4 is less than 2^n .

Beware

- It is **wrong** to say that `vector::insert` is $\Theta(n)$
 - Because there is a case that it grows slower than n
- It is **wrong** to say that `vector::push_back` is $\Theta(n)$
 - Because there is a case that it grows slower than n
- It is **ok** to say that `std::count` is $\mathcal{O}(n)$
 - Because while it always grows as n , it **does not grow faster than n**
 - $\mathcal{O}(n)$ is upper bound
 - But it is better to say that `std::count` is $\Theta(n)$

How to analyze using asymptotic notation

- Write a code
- Calculate the function $f(n)$ that counts the number of instruction of the code when the data is size n
 - Usually, just focus on **most executed line**
- Find $g(n)$ and a notation X such that $f(n)$ is $X(g(n))$
 - It's either **Big-O** or **Big-Theta**. If there is a case that it can grow slower than $G(n)$, use Big-O

Another Example

- Let's analyze `vector::push_back`

```
iterator insert(iterator it, const T& element) {
    size_t pos = it - begin();
    ensureCapacity(mSize + 1);
    for (size_t i = mSize; i > pos; i--) {
        mData[i] = mData[i-1]; // <----- Most executed line: 1 (b)
    }
    mData[pos] = element;
    mSize++;
}
```

```

    return begin()+pos;
}
void push_back(const T& element) {
    insert(end(), element);
}

void expand(size_t capacity) {
    T *arr = new T[capacity]();
    for (size_t i = 0; i < mSize; i++) {
        arr[i] = mData[i]; // <----- Most executed line: 0, 0, 0, 0, 2, 4, 8, 16 (a)
    }
    delete [] mData;
    mData = arr;
    mCap = capacity;
}

void ensureCapacity(size_t capacity) {
    if (capacity > mCap) {
        size_t s = (capacity > 2 * mCap) ? capacity : 2 * mCap;
        expand(s);
    }
}

// (a) can be 0 to n
// (b) can also be 0 to n
// Best case 0 + 0
// Worst case n + n
// vector::push_back is O(n)

```

Another Definition for $\mathcal{O}$ and Θ

- Using set builder notation
- $\mathcal{O}(g(n)) = \{f(n) \mid \text{there exists } c > 0 \text{ and } n_0 \geq 0 \text{ such that } f(n) \leq cg(n) \text{ for } n \geq n_0\}$
- $\Theta(g(n)) = \{f(n) \mid \text{there exists } c_1, c_2 > 0 \text{ and } n_0 \geq 0 \text{ such that } c_1g(n) \leq f(n) \leq c_2g(n) \text{ for } n \geq n_0\}$
- The result is the same as definition using lim

Summary

- We use Asymtotic Notation to describe efficiency of a program
 - Measure instruction count instead of time
 - Focus on growth rate of instruction count
- Find most frequently executed line in the code and count it
- Maps to Big-Theta if we have tight bound
- Use Big-O if we have upper bound

Example

Showing $\log_2(n!)$ is $\Theta(n \log_2(n))$

- Will use set definition of Big-Theta
 - $\{f(n) \mid \text{there exists } c_1, c_2 > 0 \text{ and } n_0 \geq 0 \text{ such that } c_1g(n) \leq f(n) \leq c_2g(n) \text{ for } n \geq n_0\}$
- Need to find c_1, c_2 and n_0

Finding c_1 and c_2

$$n! = n \times (n-1) \times (n-2) \times (n-3) \times \dots \times 1$$

$$n! \leq n \times n \times n \times n \times \dots \times n$$

$$\log n! \leq \log n^n \quad \boxed{\log n^n = n \log n \text{ when } n \geq 1}$$

Found $c_2 = 1$ for upper bound $\log n! \leq n \log n$ when $n \geq 1$

$$n! = n \times (n-1) \times \dots \times \left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor \times \left(\left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor - 1 \right) \times \dots \times 1$$

$$n! \geq \left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor \times \left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor \times \dots \times \left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor \times 1 \times \dots \times 1$$

$$n! \geq \left(\frac{n}{2}\right)^{n/2} \quad \log\left(\frac{n}{2}\right)^{n/2} = \frac{n}{2} \log n - \frac{n}{2}$$

$$\log n! \geq \log\left(\frac{n}{2}\right)^{n/2} \quad 0.5n \log n - 0.5n \geq 0.4n \log n \text{ when } n \geq 32$$

Found $c_1 = 0.4$ for lower bound $\log n! \geq 0.4n \log n$ when $n \geq 32$

$$0.4n \log n \leq \log n! \leq n \log n \text{ when } n \geq 32, c_1 = 0.4, c_2 = 1, n_0 = 32$$

$$\Rightarrow \log n! \text{ is } \Theta(n \log n) \text{ and } n \log n \text{ is } \Theta(\log n!)$$

Lecture 13

Priority Queue Simple Implementation

Featuring Binary Heap

Overview

- Simple implementation of `priority_queue`
- Quick intro to **Graph** and **Tree**
- **Binary Heap**
- `priority_queue` with **Binary Heap**

`priority_queue`

- Queue by value
- Max-in-First-Out

```
int main() {
    priority_queue<int> pq;
    pq.push(4);
    pq.push(20);
    pq.push(3);

    while (pq.empty() == false) {
        cout << pq.top() << endl;
        pq.pop();
    }
}
```

Vo.1, `priority_queue` by vector

- Use **vector** to store data
- push = simply `push_back`
- top, pop = find the max value and return / erase
- `max_element` returns iterator to max element

```
namespace CP {
    template <typename T>
    class priority_queue {
    protected:
        std::vector<T> v;
    public:
        bool empty(); { return v.empty(); }
        bool size(); { return v.size(); }
```

```

    void push(const T &e) { v.push_back(e); }

    T top() { return *std::max_element(v.begin(), v.end()); }

    void pop() { v.erase(std::max_element(v.begin(), end())); }
};
}

```

max_element

```

iterator max_element(iterator first, iterator last) {
    if (first == last) return last;
    iterator largest = first;
    ++first;
    for (; first != last; ++first)
        if (*largest < *first)
            largest = first;
    return largest;
}

```

Vo.1 complexities

push	$\mathcal{O}(1)$ *amortized
top()	$\Theta(n)$
pop()	$\Theta(n)$

Vo.2 faster pop, top (and push??)

- vo.1 has many drawbacks
 - Consecutive call of top is slow (it shouldn't)
 - Both pop and top works almost the same
- vo.2 focus on **slower push** while keeps **pop, top fast**
- Make the array **sorted**
 - Max will be at the back
 - Fast pop, top

```

namespace CP {
    template <typename T>
    class priority_queue {
    protected:
        std::vector<T> v;
    public:
        bool empty(); { return v.empty(); }
        bool size(); { return v.size(); }

        T& top() { return v[v.size()-1]; }

        void pop() { v.erase(v.end()-1); }

        void push(const T &e) {
            // do something
        }
    };
}

```

vo.2 push

- Maintain that the vector is sorted at every push

```

void push(const T& e) {
    v.push_back(e); // <--  $\mathcal{O}(1)$ 
    sort(v.begin(), v.end()); // <--  $\mathcal{O}(n \log(n))$ 
}

void push(const T& e) {
    auto it = v.begin();
    while (it < v.end() && *it <= e) // <--  $\mathcal{O}(n)$ 
        it++;
    v.insert(it, e); // <--  $\mathcal{O}(n)$ 
} // Total of this program is  $\mathcal{O}(n)$ 

void push(const T& e) { // upper_bound is  $\mathcal{O}(\log(n))$ 
    v.insert(std::upper_bound(v.begin(), v.end(), e), e); // <--  $\mathcal{O}(n)$ 
}

```

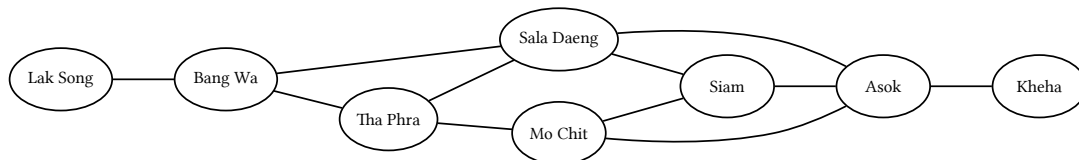
Which one is better?

- vo.1 fast push
- vo.2 fast pop, top
- Depends on which operation we use most often
- The real version works like vo.2, we maintain some **rules** of the data that is stored in the vector such that
 - We know where max is (for fast pop)
 - Much faster push, a little bit slower pop
 - Use structure called **Binary Heap**

Graph & Tree

Graph

- Discrete Math Graph
- A math model that describe entities and connectivity between them



Graph Model

- Graph consists of two things
 - **Nodes (vertex, vertices)** are **things** we want to connect
 - **Edges** are pairs, each pair is a **connectivity** between two nodes
- Graph $G = (V, E)$ where V is a set of nodes and E is a set of edges

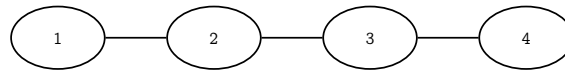
$V = \{\text{"Mo Chit", "Siam", "Asok", "Sala Daeng", "Tha Phra", "Lak Song", "Bang Wa", "Kheha"}\}$

$E =$

$\{(\text{"Mo Chit", "Asok"}), (\text{"Mo Chit", "Siam"}), (\text{"Tha Phra", "Mo Chit"}), (\text{"Sala Daeng", "Tha Phra"}), \dots\}$

Tree

- A special kind of graph
 - Has N nodes and $N - 1$ edges
 - Every nodes must be connected (we can start from any node and can walk through edge to reach any node)

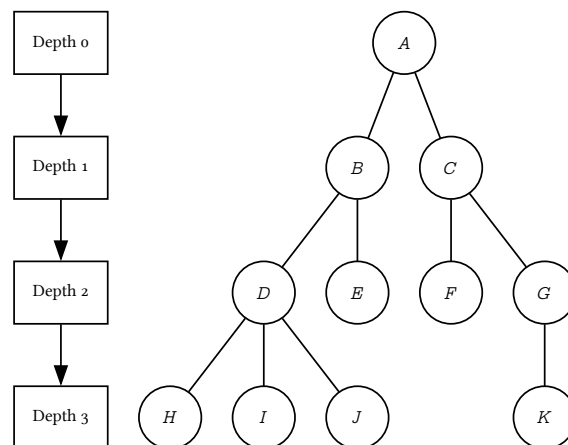


$$V = \{1, 2, 3, 4\}$$

$$E = \{(1, 2), (2, 3), (3, 4)\}$$

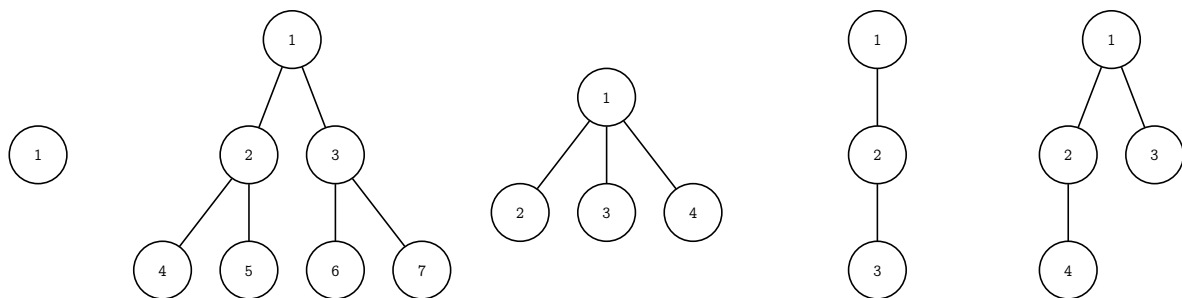
Rooted Tree

- Tree where one node is defined as **root**
- For an edge in a rooted tree, a node that is closer to the root is called **parent** while the other node is called **child**
- **Ancestor** of node A = parent of parent ... of A
- **Descendant** of node A = child of child ... of A
- Root is usually drawn at the top and is considered as the **starting point**
 - Root is at level 0 (depth 0)
 - Children of root are drawn at the same level at **level 1** (depth 1)
 - Children of children of root are at **level 2** (depth 2)



Complete Binary Tree

- Binary Tree = a tree that every node has at most 2 children
- Complete tree = the tree must be filled with every possible node at every level (except the deepest level which must be filled as far to the left as possible)
 - Blank tree is considered a complete binary tree



OK

OK

Not binary

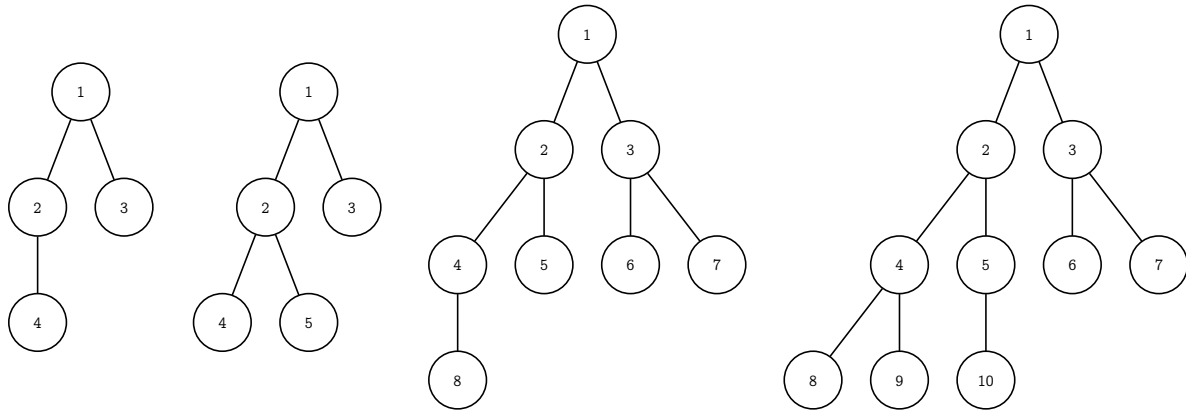
Not complete (at depth 1)

OK

Exercise

- Draw a Complete Binary Tree that has 4, 5, 8, 10 nodes

Hint: The answer is unique (There are exactly 1 way to draw a complete binary tree of size k)

**Special Property of a Complete Binary Tree**

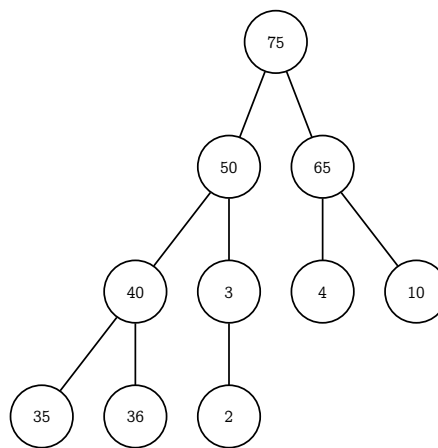
- There is exactly one way to go from any node to any node
- Maximum depth is $\log_2 n$ where n is the number of nodes
 - Because we require completeness, and we have 2 possible children

Binary Heap

Use Complete Binary Tree to make priority_queue

**Binary Heap**

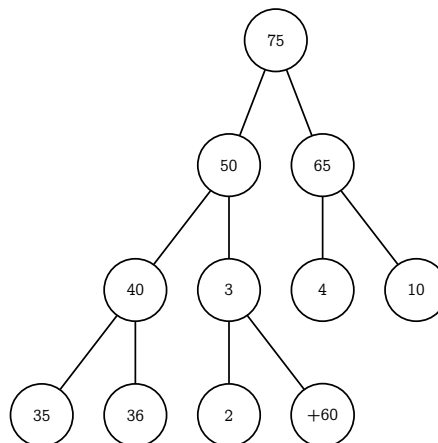
- We use Complete Binary Tree to store data
 - A value is stored at the node
- When data is modified (via push or pop), we must maintain these rules
 1. Tree must always be Complete Binary Tree
 2. For any node, its value must be greater or equal that of its children



Adding data to Binary Heap

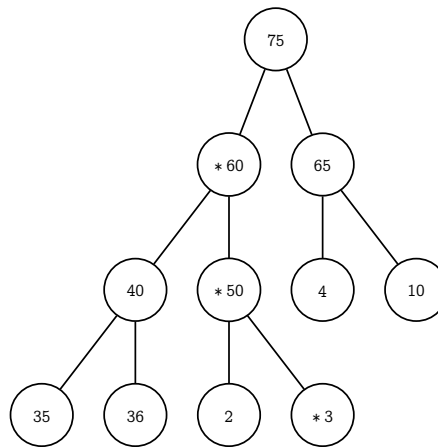
- Maintain Binary Heapness
 - structure of data
 - value of data
- Structure rules says where the new nodes should be
 - Next to **right-most child of deepest level**
 - But if we put new data there, the **value rules might be broken**
 - Fix it

push(60)



Fix from adding a new node

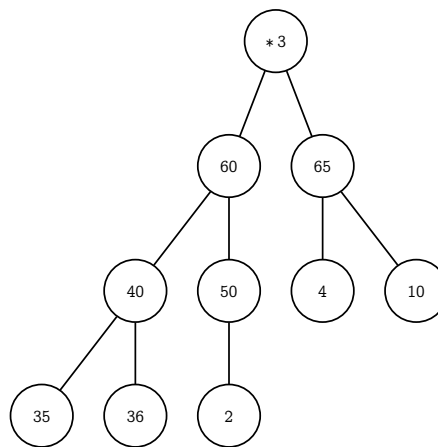
- Fix:
 - Check where we just add a node, if value rules is broken, swap with parent
 - After swap, re-check with new parent
 - Kepp doing until correct or at root



See that: after each swap, the swapped nodes does not violate with **its new children**

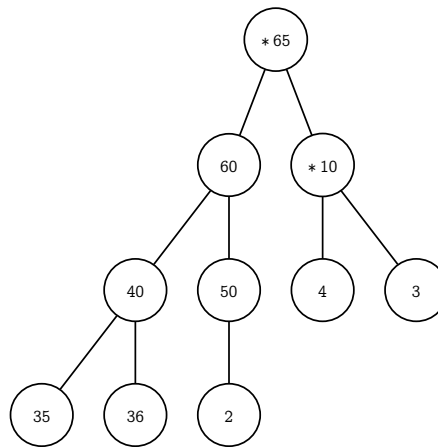
Delete maximum data

- Similar to push, we will try to maintain structure first
- delete will remove root, find something to replace
 - Use the lowest, right-most node
- Value rules might be broken
 - Fix it



Fix from deleting root node

- Fix:
 - Start at replaced root, if value rules is broken, swap with maximum child
 - After swap, re-check with new children
 - Beware! There is a case where we might have only one child
 - Keep doing until correct or has no children



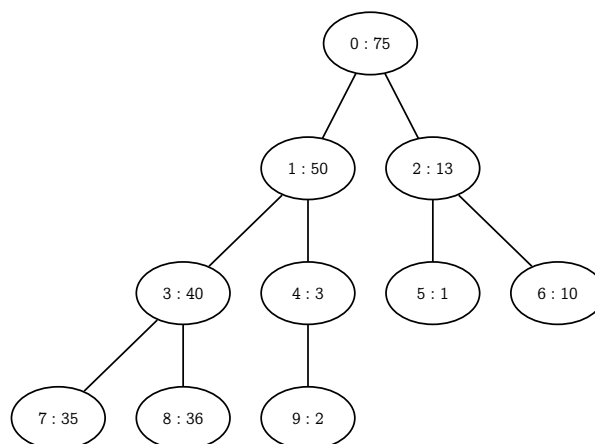
Analysis

- How fast is push, pop
- push
 - Add to vector is $\mathcal{O}(1)$ amortized
 - Fixing value rules is $\mathcal{O}(h)$ where h is the maximum number of depth of the tree (we call this value tree height)
 - Notice that tree height is $\mathcal{O}(\log(n))$
- pop
 - Fixing value rules is $\mathcal{O}(h)$ where h is the maximum number of tree height

Push + Fix Up

How to store a tree?

- Use **dynamic array**
 - Each node can be labelled from 0 to $n-1$
- **Root** is at 0
- **Left child** of node i is at $(i*2)+1$
- **Right child** of node i is at $(i*2)+2$
- **Parent** of node i is at $(i-1)/2$



Dynamic array: [75, 50, 13, 40, 3, 1, 10, 35, 36, 2]

Layout

```

template <typename T, typename Comp = std::less<T>>
class priority_queue {
protected:
    T *mData;
    size_t mCap;
    size_t mSize;
    Comp mLess;
    void expand(size_t capacity) {} // Fix value rules
    void fixUp(size_t idx) {}
    void fixDown(size_t idx) {}
public:
    // constructor
    priority_queue(priority_queue<T,Comp>& a);
    priority_queue(const Comp& c = Comp());
    priority_queue<T, Comp>& operator=(priority_queue<T,Comp> other);
    ~priority_queue();
    // capacity function
    bool empty() const;
    size_t size() const;
    // access
    const T& top();
    // modifier
    void push(const T& element);
    void pop();
};

```

Constructor

- Using **list initialize**
- See that mData is dynamic array in the same way as vector
- mLess is something that is just either copied or default initialize
 - Will talk about it later

```

priority_queue(const Comp& c = Comp()):
    mData( new T[1]() ),
    mCap( 1 ),
    mSize( 0 ),
    mLess( c )
{ }

```

```

priority_queue(priority_queue<T, Comp>& a) :
    mData(new T[a.mCap]()),
    mCap(a.mCap),
    mSize(a.mSize),
    mLess(a.mLess)
{
    for (size_t i = 0; i < a.mCap; i++) {
        mData[i] = a.mData[i];
    }
}

```

Destructor and Copy Assignment Operator

- Using standard copy-and-swap idiom

```

~priority_queue() {
    delete [] mData;
}

```

```
}
```

```
priority_queue<T,Comp>& operator=(priority_queue<T,Comp> other) {
    using std::swap;
    swap(mSize,other.mSize);
    swap(mCap,other.mCap);
    swap(mData,other.mData);
    swap(mLess,other.mLess);
    return *this;
}
```

Push

- See that the **right-most child of the deepest level** is at `mData[mSize-1]` and the new node should be at `mData[mSize]`
- We do the same thing as vector's `push_back`
- Then fix the value rule

```
void expand(size_t capacity) { // Same as CP::vector
    T *arr = new T[capacity]();
    for (size_t i = 0; i < mSize; i++) {
        arr[i] = mData[i];
    }
    delete [] mData;
    mData = arr;
    mCap = capacity;
}
```

```
void push(const T& element) {
    if (mSize + 1 > mCap)
        expand(mCap * 2);
    mData[mSize] = element;
    mSize++;
    fixUp(mSize-1);
}
```

Fix Up

- Instead of actual swap, we perform insert and find appropriate position at the same time

```
void fixUp(size_t idx) {
    T tmp = mData[idx];
    while (idx > 0) {
        size_t p = (idx - 1) / 2;
        if ( tmp < mData[p] ) break;
        mData[idx] = mData[p];
        idx = p;
    }
    mData[idx] = tmp;
}
```

```
mData p = /, idx = *, tmp = 60
  0  1  2  3  4  5  6  7  8  9 10
[ 75, 50, 13, 40, /3,  1, 10, 35, 36,  2,*60]

[ 75,/50, 13, 40, *3,  1, 10, 35, 36,  2,  3]

[/75,*50, 13, 40, 50,  1, 10, 35, 36,  2,  3]
```

```
tmp = 60 < 75 = mData[p] => break; mData[idx] = tmp;
[ 75, 60, 13, 40, 50, 1, 10, 35, 36, 2, 3]
```

mLess

- priority_queue allows a custom comparator
- Custom comparator X
 - We must be able to $X(a, b)$ where X will compare a and b and return true only when a is less than b
 - X is a **variable** that implement operator()
- Initialize at constructor as variable mLess to be of type Comp in template
- Any comparison of our data (type T) must be done by mLess

```
void fixUp(size_t idx) {
    T tmp = mData[idx];
    while (idx > 0) {
        size_t p = (idx - 1) / 2;
        if ( mLess(tmp, mData[p]) ) break;
        mData[idx] = mData[p];
        idx = p;
    }
    mData[idx] = tmp;
}
```

Pop + FixDown

Pop

```
void pop() {
    mData[0] = mData[mSize-1];
    mSize--;
    fixDown(0);
}
```

```
void fixDown(size_t idx) {
    T tmp = mData[idx];
    size_t c;
    while ((c = 2 * idx + 1) < mSize) {
        if ( c + 1 < mSize && mLess(mData[c], mData[c+1]) ) c++;
        if ( mLess(mData[c], tmp) ) break;
        mData[idx] = mData[c];
        idx = c;
    }
    mData[idx] = tmp;
}
```

- while loop checks if we have **at least one child**
- c is the index of **highest value child**
 - Must consider the case where we have only one child
- Exercise: read the rest yourself

Fast Construction

Construct PQ from n data

```
priority_queue(std::vector<T> &v, const Comp& c = Comp()) :
    mData( new T[v.size()]() ), mCap( v.size() ), mSize( 0 ), mLess( c ) {
    for (size_t i = 0; i < mSize; i++) push(v[i]); // n times and each log(n)
}
```

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Total} &\leq \lfloor \log_2 1 \rfloor + \lfloor \log_2 2 \rfloor + \dots + \lfloor \log_2 n \rfloor \\ &\leq \lfloor \log_2 (1 \times 2 \times 3 \times \dots \times n) \rfloor = \lfloor \log_2 n! \rfloor \end{aligned}$$

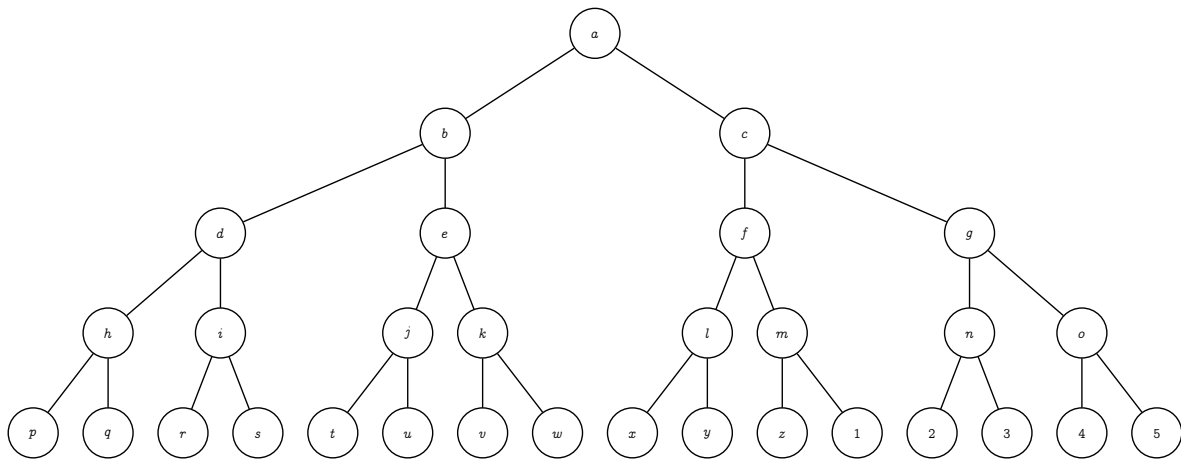
$$\lfloor \log_2 n! \rfloor \text{ is } \mathcal{O}(n \log n)$$

Better Method

```
priority_queue(std::vector<T> &v, const Comp& c = Comp()) :
    mData( new T[v.size()]() ), mCap( v.size() ), mSize( 0 ), mLess( c )
{
    for (size_t i = 0; i < mSize; i++) mData[i] = v[i];
    for (int i = mSize/2-1; i > 0; i++) fixDown(i);
}
```

- Consider each node to be a binary heap
- Fix down from back to front

How fast?



- Binary Tree Property:
 - There are at most 2^k nodes at depth k
 - For a tree of height h , at depth k , fix down needed at most $h - k$ iterations

Total nodes = 31

Tree height = $\log_2(31) = 4$

Depth: k , Nodes: 2^k , Max fix: $h - k$
 Total = $\sum_{k=0}^h k 2^{h-k}$

Depth	Nodes	Max fix per node
0	1	4
1	2	3
2	4	2
3	8	1
4	16	0

$$\sum_{k=0}^h k 2^{h-k} = 2^h \sum_{k=0}^h k 2^{-k} < 2^h \underbrace{\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} k 2^{-k}}_{\text{This is 2}} = 2^{h+1} = 2^{\log_2 n + 1} = \mathcal{O}(n)$$

Exercise

If we use different number of children per node, say 4-ary heap, with same logic still holds.

1. How to keep data in dynamic array?

2. Write the new functions `fixUp` and `fixDown`
3. Is it faster?? Consider any n -ary heap

Will do this part later

Lecture 14

Linked List

Faster insert and erase but slower access

Overview

- Vector takes $\mathcal{O}(n)$ in insert / erase at position specified by an iterator
 - But it is very fast to access any member, $\mathcal{O}(1)$
- List gives better performance on insert / erase as $\mathcal{O}(1)$, providing that we have iterator to the position of insertion / erase
- Achieved by storing data into a **node** and each **node** use a **pointer** to identify the **next element**
 - Access to any elements is $\mathcal{O}(n)$, if we don't have an iterator to that element
- Use more memory than vector

List vs Vector

List	Vector
• Allocate each data separately ▸ Each data points to where is the next data ▸ Very fast insert / erase (just change some pointer) ▸ Very slow access because we don't know where k-th element is	• Allocate data as a consecutive block ▸ Very fast to access any element ▸ Very slow insert / erase requires every element after point of insertion

vo.1 node

- Simple object that stores a **data** and a **link to another node**
- **NULL** is a special value for any pointer that points to nowhere
 - Draw as a ground

```
template <typename T>
class node {
public:
    T data;
    node *next;
    node() :
        data( T() ), next( NULL ) { }

    node(const T& data, node* next) {
        data( T(data) ), next( next ) { }
    }
};
```

Pointer to Node

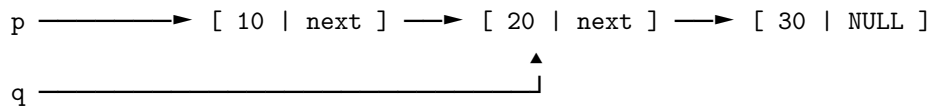
- Working with linked list needs a pointer to a node

```
int main() {
    CP::node<int> *p = NULL;
    p = new CP::node<int>(10, NULL);
    CP::node<int> *q;
    q = new CP::node<int>(20, NULL);
```

```

p->next = q;
q->next = new CP::node<int>(30, NULL);
}

```

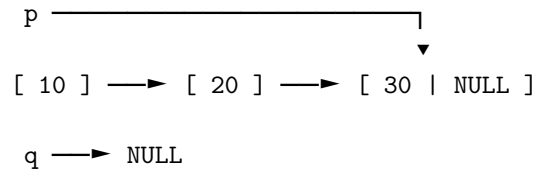


What is the result of?

```

p = p->next->next; // p points to [30, NULL]
q = p;           // q points to [30, NULL]
q = q->next;      // q points to NULL

```



vo.1 Simple (Singly) Linked List

```

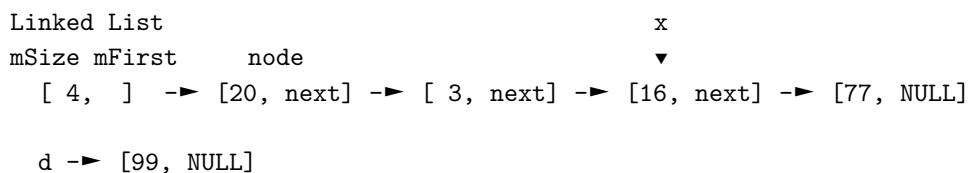
template <typename T>
class list {
protected:
    class node {
    public:
        T data;
        node *next;
        node() :
            data( T() ), next( NULL ) { }

        node(const T& data, node* next) {
            data( T(data) ), next( next ) { }
        }
    };
protected:
    node *mFirst;
    size_t mSize;
public:
    list() : mFirst( NULL ), mSize( 0 ) { }
    ~list() { clear(); }
    // ... more function
};

```

- Node is a inner class

Insertion

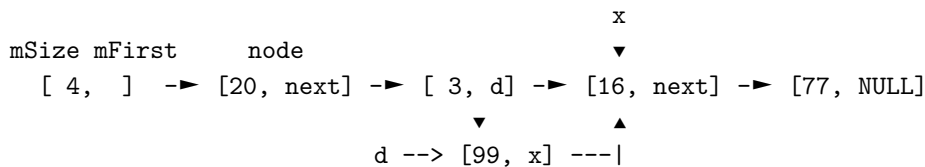


- To insert a value 99 before value 16, let x be a pointer that point to the node of 16
 1. Create a new node d containing a data to be inserted
 2. Change pointer of a node before x (which points to x) to point to d instead
 3. Make pointer of d points to x

```

CP::node<int> *x = mFirst->next->next;
CP::node<int> *d = new CP::node<int>(99, NULL);
mFirst->next->next = d;
d->next = x;

```



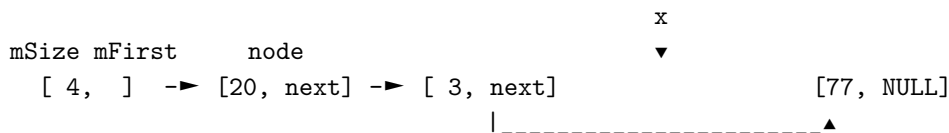
Erase

- To delete a value of 16, in the node pointed by x
 - Change pointer of a node before x (which points to x) to point to the node that x points to instead
 - Don't forget to delete x

```

CP::node<int> *x = mFirst->next->next;
mFirst->next->next = x->next;
delete x;

```



Doubly Linked List

Problem with SLL

- erase / insert at iterator X is hard
 - If we have an iterator point to X, we cannot easily go to the node before X
 - Cannot go backward
 - Need to start from mFirst and move on
- Adding data to the end takes long time
 - We have to get iterator that points to the last element (which is $O(n)$)

Finding node before X

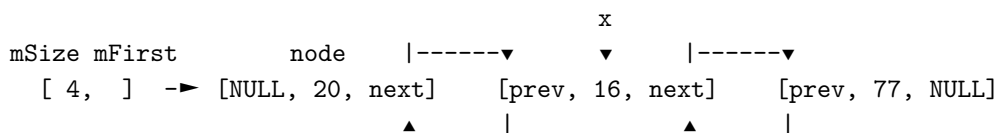
```

node *p = mFirst;
while (p != NULL && p->next != x) p = p->next;

```

vo.2 Doubly Linked List

- Each node has 2 pointers
 - next and prev
- Can now move forward and backward
- Now, if X is a pointer to a node, we can easily go to node before X and then erase or insert



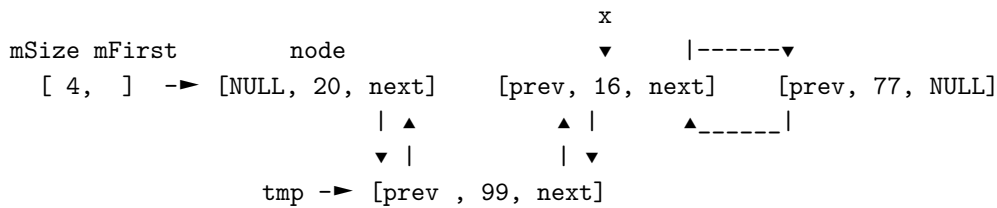
Insert in Doubly Linked List

```

CP::node<int> *tmp =
    new CP::node<int> (99, NULL, NULL);
tmp->next = x;
tmp->prev = x->prev;

```

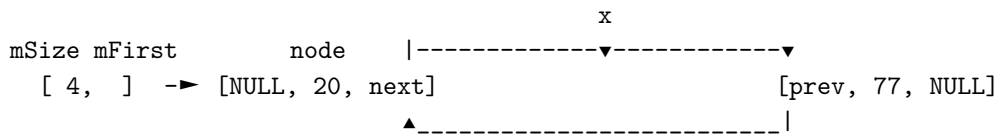
```
x->prev->next = tmp;
x->prev = tmp;
```



Erase in Doubly List

```
x->prev->next = x->next;  
x->next->prev = x->prev;  
delete x;
```

Note: When we refer to a pointer, `x` is the variable itself, but the value of `x` is the destination address it is pointing to. Say `x` holds a node containing `[x->prev, 16, x->next]`. In this set up, `x->prev->next` represents the next pointer inside the node before `x`. If we write `x->prev->next = x->next;`, it means that the previous node's next pointer now stores the destination of the node after `x`. In other words, it successfully skips `x` from the sequence.



Circular Linked List

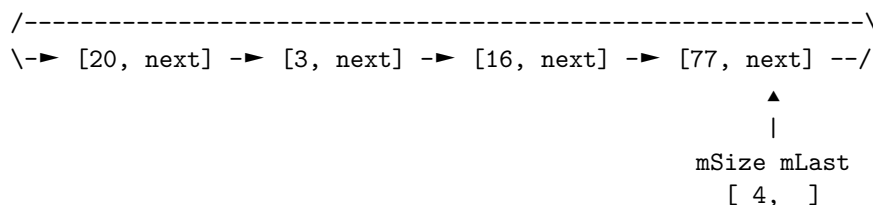
Problem Solved

- erase / insert at iterator X is now **easy**
- But, adding data at the end (push_back) is still hard
 - Need to get X to point to the last element
 - push_back is popular in real world
 - Right now we have only push_back (fast addition to the first)
- Also some minor issue about the **code cleanliness**
 - insert / erase the first / last node

vo.3 Circular Linked List

- Use `mLast` instead of `mFirst`
- Fast access to both first and last element

```
CP::node<int> *first = mLast->next;
```



vo.4 Circular Doubly Linked List

- Special linking to last element
 - Fast access to both first and last element
 - Can now easily insert at the end

```
CP::node<int> *last = mFirst->prev;
```

